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PART III
BAUDDHA-ŚAIVA DYNAMICS

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Once More on the ‘Ratu Boko Mantra’: Magic, Realpolitik, and Bauddha-Śaiva Dynamics in Ancient Nusantara

ANDREA ACRI

IN HIS GROUNDBREAKING ARTICLE ‘A Buddhist mantra recovered from the Ratu Boko plateau: A preliminary study of its implications for Śailendra-era Java’, Jeffrey Sundberg (2003) highlighted an important gold artefact recovered from the Ratu Boko hillock near Prambanan in Central Java.¹ The artefact, an inscribed gold foil consisting of two connected diamond-shaped leaves recalling a *vajra*, bears the Sanskrit mantra OM ṬAKĪ HŪM JAḤ SVĀHĀ repeated on each of its four sides.² A unique, and intriguing, feature of the inscription is the engraving of the words *panarabvan* and *khanipas* within an exaggerated circular bubble in the two cases of the grapheme *ī* in the sequence *ṭakī*. This feature led Sundberg to advance the hypothesis that the artefact, and the mantra(s) inscribed on it, was connected to King Rakai Panaraban (r. AD 784–803),³ who is known to us through the inscription

of Wanua Tengah III recovered from Central Java, as well as from the 16th-century Old Sundanese historical chronicle *Carita Parahyañan* (Sundberg 2011). Sundberg (2003) discovered instances of very similar mantras (i.e., ṬAKKI HŪM JAḤ, ṬAKKIJAḤ HŪM)⁴ in Sanskrit, Tibetan, and Sino-Japanese Tantric Buddhist texts, and pointed out that in the Sanskrit *Sarvatathāgatātattvasaṅgraha* (STTS)—a 7th-century *mūlatantra* consolidated over time into the Yogatantra tradition (Weinberger 2003: 4)—the mantra occurs in the context of the Buddhist Trailokyavijaya myth or the ‘Subjugation of Maheśvara’ by the Bodhisattva Vajrapāṇi, while in Sino-Japanese sources it is associated with Aizen’s subjugation of Īśvara and Nārāyaṇa. In view of these interesting facts, Sundberg concluded that the epigraphic document was Vajrayāna in nature, thus opening the grounds ‘to find expressions of these tantric convictions in the stone temples of Java’ (ibid.: 181); that it might have had an anti-Śaiva character (and purpose)—being a repudiation in strong terms of the religion of Panaraban’s ancestor Sañjaya (ibid.: 183); and that it was devised by Panaraban, in order to ‘link himself to the mantra or the cosmic being it points to’ (ibid.). In the conclusion to his essay, Sundberg anticipated that the study of this mantra ‘has hopefully only just

1. I wish to thank Rolf Giebel, Arlo Griffiths, Roy Jordaan, Iain Sinclair, and Jeffrey Sundberg for having read and commented on various drafts of this chapter. Any mistakes are, of course, mine alone. I am particularly grateful to Iain Sinclair who, besides providing me with references to relevant passages of Tantric Buddhist manuals, has kindly shared with me many e-texts and rare editions of Buddhist sources that otherwise would have remained inaccessible to me.

2. Regrettably, the present whereabouts of the gold foil are unknown; what remains is a hand-drawn facsimile made by Suhamir (*Oudheidkundig Verslag* 1950: 36), reproduced in Sundberg 2003: 165 and again here as Fig. 13.1.

3. In fact the identification of *panarabvan* with Rakai Panaraban was already proposed by the late Indonesian archaeologist Kusen (1994), whose work is acknowledged by Sundberg. While I am entirely persuaded by the phonetic and orthographic arguments adduced by Sundberg (2003: 176–77) in support of the identification of the *panarabvan* inscribed on the plate with the historical king Rakai Panaraban known from Old Javanese inscriptions, most notably

Wanua Tengah III, I must leave aside the discussion of his proposed identification of this figure with the Śailendra king Samaratunga, which goes beyond the scope of this contribution (for a critical appraisal of his hypothesis, see Jordaan and Colless 2004: 58–59).

4. I consider the doubling of consonants in the versions of the mantra attested in Sanskrit and Tibetan sources on the one hand and Archipelagic sources on the other (e.g., *ṭakki* vs *ṭaki*) a trivial matter, which reflects minor orthographic variation rather than linguistic variation.

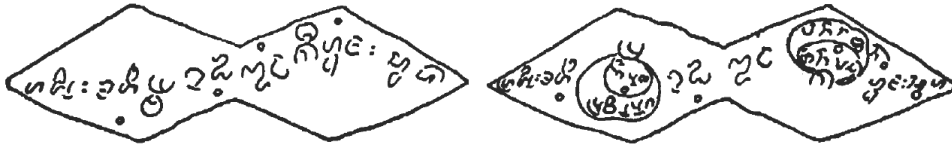


Fig. 12.1: Drawing of the Ratu Boko gold foil by Soehamir. (Adapted from *Oudheidkundig Verslag* 1948 [1950: 36])

begun' (ibid.), and invited scholars with the necessary philological skills to search for attestations of this mantra in textual sources from South, Central, Southeast, and East Asia; to explore the meaning of the obscure Old Javanese (?) word *khanipas*; and to pay archaeological attention to the Ratu Boko Buddhist site.

Sundberg's appeal was promptly taken up by Roy Jordaan and Brian Colless, who in 2004 published the short study 'The Ratu Boko mantra and the Śailendras'. Jordaan and Colless (2004: 58) wrestled with Sundberg's proposed identification of Panaraban as Samaratuṅga, the Śailendra ruler under whose auspices the 792 Buddhist inscription of Abhayagirivihāra was composed, as well as his adherence to Buddhism. They assume that he was in fact a Śaiva and that, given the association of the mantra with the Trailokyavijaya myth, its 'intention could have been the mantrical subjugation and conversion of Panaraban' (ibid.: 61).⁵

Recently, Arlo Griffiths (2014a) has returned to the 'Ratu Boko mantra' in section 7 (pp. 177–80) of his fine study entitled 'Written Traces of the Buddhist Past: Mantras and Dhāraṇīs in Indonesian Inscriptions'. Griffiths, crediting Sundberg with having done much to throw light on this unique gold artefact, has drawn attention to attestations of precise matches to the mantric sequence OM ṬA(Ḳ) KĪ/I HŪM JAḤ in the *Guhyasamājatantra* (14.22) and in the Tibetan version of the pre-9th century *Sarvavajrodaya*, a ritual manual by Ānandagarbha based on the system of the STTS. Having fulfilled Sundberg's desideratum to find exact attestations of the mantra in early Tantric Buddhist sources, Griffiths pointed out that the same mantra ṬAKI

HŪM JAḤ is also attested in three short Old Javanese stone pillar inscriptions that previous scholars, followed by Sundberg, read as PAKI HŪM JAḤ; furthermore, he pinpointed a very similar mantric sequence attested on a fourth Old Javanese inscription, whose whereabouts and context are presently unknown, as well as on a lead-bronze inscription from Borobudur, which contains a *dhāraṇī* devoted to a wrathful form of Vajrapāṇi (Griffiths 2014a).

Building on the work of my predecessors, I will enter this fascinating discussion by identifying two other attestations—in a slightly modified form—of the ṬAKI HŪM JAḤ mantra: one in a Sanskrit Buddhist hymn (*stuti*) from Bali, and the other in the *Gaṇapatitattva*, a Sanskrit-Old Javanese *tutur* text of Śaiva persuasion. The latter—admittedly unusual—attestation of a Buddhist mantra in a Śaiva text named after Gaṇapati will give me the opportunity to elaborate on the links between the mantra and the figure of the elephant-headed god. Further, given the commonality of themes—that is, Tantric magic—shared by the section of the *tutur* attesting the ṬAKI HŪM JAḤ mantra and the Ratu Boko gold foil, I will try to throw new light on the context and the function of the latter. By analysing relevant textual evidence from Java and the Indian Subcontinent, I will then discuss the religious and socio-political scenarios opened up by it.⁶ The documents, I will argue, bear witness to dynamics of interaction and appropriation of mantric technology across the Śaiva and Bauddha divide in Central Java, Bali, and much of the pre-modern Indic cosmopolitan world.

5. A succinct 'rejoinder' to the critiques and alternative hypotheses advanced by Jordaan and Colless may be found in Sundberg 2006: 112–13, n. 25; for his 2014 comments amending his 2006 rebuttal, see Sundberg, this volume, Annex to Chapter 14.

6. Given the uncertainty about the exact spot where the artefact was found, and other basic archaeological facts about the Ratu Boko complex, I will leave aside such questions as whether the gold foil was part of a foundation deposit related to the construction of the great western entrance-gate of the complex, or rather was meant to accompany the consecration of the statue of a tutelary deity, as speculated by Sundberg.

THE MANTRA JAḤ TAḤ KIḤ HUM PHAṬ
IN THE PAÑCAKĀṆḌASTAVA

The *Pañcakāṇḍastava* was edited and translated by Goudriaan and Hooykaas (1971: 241–43) as *stuti* no. 375, 'Hymn to the Five Constituents'.⁷ The authors called this an 'interesting hymn ... nearly confined to Buddhist sources', which they found in its entirety on at least twelve Buddhist manuscripts on daily ritual and death ritual, while its first two *ślokas*—precisely those attesting our mantra—they found also in three Śaiva sources (mss. 1590/I3a, 5160/33b, 2335). According to their Śaiva informant, this hymn is not used by the Śaiva priests (ibid.: 242). Below I reproduce Goudriaan and Hooykaas' edition, critical apparatus (converted from their footnotes 1–7), and English translation of this *stuti* and its 'sprinkling formula'.

JAḤ-kāraḥ parvato jñeyah
TAḤ-kāro jaladhis tathā /
KIḤ-kāraś ca mahātejo
HUM-kāro vāyur eva ca // 1
PHAṬ-kāraś ca mahākāśah
sarvaviḡnavināśanam /
etāni sarvabhūtāni
tad eva satatam punaḥ // 2
devapūjām kariṣye naḥ
sarvakleśavināśanam /
dīrghāyusyam avāpnoti
bhuktilābham avāpnuyāt // 3
ādityasya parāyaṇam
sarvarogavināśanam /
toyavaham jagatpunyam
pavitram pāpasakalam // 4

Sprinkling formula (PVTg18; PPKA29):

OM OM Śrī Śrī ambhavana
Sarvarogavināśanam, sarvapāvināśāya
Sarvakleśavināśanam, sarvaduḥkhavināśāya,
Namaḥ svāhā

2b sarvaviḡna⁹] 7× viḡna; 7× roga 2c etāni sarvabhūtāni] thus two mss.; others etānām sarvabhūtānām 2d tad eva] 8× sadeva 2d punaḥ] 6× uday; others pudaḥ 3c avāpnoti] 5× apaśyataḥ 3d bhuktilābham avāpnuyāt] five mss. saṁgrāme vijayī bhavet 4d 'sakalam] mss. sakatam

7. An alternative, more faithful, translation may be 'The five-constituents mantra' (where 'constituents' stands for 'portions' or 'divisions' rather than 'constitutive elements').

The syllable JAḤ is to be known as the mountain, and the syllable TAḤ as the ocean;⁸ and the syllable KIḤ as the fire, and the syllable HUM⁹ as the air. (1)

And the syllable PHAṬ is space; destruction of all hindrances; all these elements are always that...¹⁰ (2)

I will perform the worship of the gods ... which means destruction of all stains; [the worshipper] obtains the condition of a long life and will obtain enjoyment. (3)

The refuge given by the Sun; destruction of all disease; a stream of water, blessing to the world; a purifier destroying all evil. (4)

Sprinkling formula:

OM OM ...;
Destruction of all disease; towards destruction of all evil;
destruction of all stains; towards destruction of all sorrow, honour, hail.

Goudriaan and Hooykaas (1971: 242) commented that 'the language is good-looking, although the second part of [*śloka*] 2 is somewhat puzzling. Perhaps the sentence has been broken off'. Further, they noted the similarity between *ślokas* 1 and 2 and those found in the edited *Gaṇapatitattva* as *ślokas* 54 and 55, but confirmed Sudarshana Devi's (1958: 117) view that 'the *bijas* mentioned in these verses do not seem to be found elsewhere'. In a rather speculative attempt to make sense of them, they proposed that

they originally constituted the mantra *Jā-na-kī Hum Phaṭ*. Jānakī, (= Sītā) is indeed often worshipped as the Great Mother of existence and might on this function very well be considered as a personification of the Five Great Elements which constitute *Prakṛti* (Nature).

8. Goudriaan and Hooykaas (1971: 242–43, nn. 1 and 2) pointed out that here 'mountain' and 'ocean' represent 'earth' and 'water' respectively, corresponding to *pṛthivī* and *āpaḥ* of the *Gaṇapatitattva*; see below.

9. *Hum* here could be restored to *hūm*.

10. The reading *sadeva* attested on 8 mss. could be *sadaiva* (i.e., *sadā* + *eva*), 'at all times/eternally', which is however redundant in a verse-quarter featuring *satatam* and *punar*.

In view of the attestation of the parallel mantra ॐ(क)KI/I JAḤ HŪM in Buddhist texts, this hypothesis is no longer tenable. Furthermore, apart from the intriguing occurrence of the originally Buddhist mantra found in *ślokas* 1–2 in three Śaiva ritual sources, it should be noted that both *ślokas* 3–4 of the *stuti* and the sprinkling formula present thematic analogies with the *ślokas* and Old Javanese commentary of relevant portions of the *Gaṇapatitattva*, which I will present and discuss in the next section.

THE MANTRA JAḤ ॐ KIḤ HŪM PHATḤ IN
GAṆAPATITATTVA 59–60 (54–55)

The *Gaṇapatitattva* is a Śaiva scripture belonging to the Javano-Balinese *tutur* genre;¹¹ arranged as a dialogue between the Lord Śiva and his son Gaṇapati, it consists of sixty Sanskrit *ślokas* provided with Old Javanese prose glosses, introduced by an extensive Old Javanese prose section. The text, which has come down to us only through palm-leaf manuscripts from Bali, is of uncertain date. While the prose section appended to *ślokas* 51–53 reveals various Balinisms and (Middle-)Javanisms, thereby suggesting a late date of composition (16th century onwards), its earliest textual stratum, and in particular its *ślokas*, may be several centuries older, and perhaps even date back to the Central Javanese period.¹²

11. On this genre of Śaiva literature, see Aciri 2006.

12. A small number of verses of the *Gaṇapatitattva*/*Tutur Kamokṣan*/*Jñānasiddhānta* have parallels in pre-9th century Sanskrit Siddhāntatantras from the Indian Subcontinent (Aciri 2006), while verses 57–59 have a parallel in a Sanskrit *stuti* from Bali (*Praṇavajñāna*, no. 890.1–3, Goudriaan and Hooykaas 1971: 524); compare also verses 1–2 and 3cd of the *Pañcakāṇḍa* with *Gaṇapatitattva* 54–55 and 56cd. Recent research has shown that many Balinese *stutis* have preserved material stemming from the Central Javanese period: see, e.g., Kandahjaya (2009) and Griffiths (2014b) on the *Navakampa* (no. 510, Goudriaan and Hooykaas 1971: 314–15), and Aciri and Jordaan (2012) on *stutis* that, together with the Śaiva Sanskrit-Old Javanese *tutur Bhuvanasaṅkṣepa* (also handed down uniquely on Bali), arguably informed the masterplan of 9th-century Candi Śiva at Loro Jonggrang. See also *stuti* no. 450 (Goudriaan and Hooykaas 1971: 274–77), attesting a fragment from the pre-8th century *Vīṇāśikhātantra* (cf. Aciri 2006: 118–19).

As Hooykaas (1962, especially pp. 314–18) painstakingly showed, the printed edition of the *Gaṇapatitattva* (ed. Sudarshana Devi Singhal 1958), produced on the basis of a single palm-leaf manuscript, turned out to be just one version among the many that were circulating on Bali under different titles. The edited version corresponds to *Īśvara Uvāca Gaṇapati Matakvān* ('Īśvara Spoke, Gaṇapati Asked', Gedong Kirtya manuscript K2411), which appears to be the most 'mature' one as it betrays a complex process of compilation. It was carved out of a core of sixty *ślokas* (four of which are lacking in Sudarshana Devi's edition), supplemented with extra material related to Gaṇapati at its beginning and end, namely: an opening *maṅgala* verse to Gaṇapati followed by an Old Javanese prose portion containing ten questions-and-answers between Gaṇapati and Śiva; a concluding series of *ślokas* (59–61) with appended Old Javanese paragraphs; a prose *paṇlukatan gaṇapati* or 'exorcism (by means) of Gaṇapati'; and three eulogizing *ślokas* (62–64) and short Sanskrit and Old Javanese invocations (65) to the same god.¹³ Judging from the number of Balinese manuscripts preserving various redactions of this text it may be argued that the *Gaṇapatitattva* enjoyed certain popularity on the island.

The section that primarily concerns us here consists of the two *ślokas* 59–60 (54–55 in the printed edition) plus an Old Javanese prose appendix of three paragraphs. The Sanskrit-Old Javanese dyad follows an (apparently unrelated) long prose section, stretching over nineteen paragraphs, appended to *ślokas* 57–59 (51–53 in the printed edition);¹⁴ this

13. The 'core text' out of which further versions of the *Gaṇapatitattva* were carved is the *Tutur Kamokṣan*, which in its turn forms a part (with some sections rearranged in different order) of the *Tutur Ādhyātmika* (an expanded version of the latter text was edited as *Jñānasiddhānta*: see Soebadio 1971: 4–7). An 'intermediate' version of the *Gaṇapatitattva* is the *Tatva Gaṇapati* (romanized transcription by Ketut Sudarsana, PusDok, 1993), which includes the ten questions-and-answers but lacks the *maṅgala*, and the concluding material after *śloka* 61.

14. The three *ślokas* and long prose section are also found in the *Tutur Kamokṣan*, but not in *Tutur Ādhyātmika*/*Jñānasiddhānta*—the three *ślokas* alone, i.e. without the long Old Javanese prose appendage, being attested in *Jñānasiddhānta* 3.1–3, 17.4, and 18.12; cf. also *stuti* 809.1–3 (*Praṇavajñāna*). The relation, admittedly superficial, that

is followed by an (arguably related) *śloka* on the *mṛtyuñjaya* mantra (61), the *pañlukatan gaṇapati*, and the concluding Sanskrit and Old Javanese invocations. The two *ślokas* and the first paragraph of the Old Javanese commentary run as follows:¹⁵

jaḥkāre pṛthivī jñeyah
ṭaḥkāre āpa-saṁsthitah /
kiḥkāraś ca mahātejah
hūmkāre bāyu-saṁnyaset // 59
phaṭkārākāśa-saṁyuktaḥ
mahāpātakanāśāya /
pañcāṅgaṁ japayed vidvān
śivalokam avāpnuyāt // 60

ndya ta ya / jah / ṭah / kih / hūm / phaṭ //¹⁶ iti
 sañ hyañ pañcāṅga¹⁷ / japākna śivadhyāna /
 mahāpātaka vināśa denya // o //

59a jaḥkāre] GaṇEd, TGaṇ, GaṇUd; jaḥkāre PDok; jaḥkarai GaṇL; pṛthivī] corr.; prathivi TGaṇ, GaṇUd; pravivī PDok; pravivim GaṇL; jñeyah] PDok, GaṇL, TGaṇ, GaṇUd (m. aḥ for f. ā); jñeyā GaṇEd; 59b ṭaḥkāre] corr. (°e ā° for °a ā°); ṭaḥkāra GaṇEd; ṭaḥkarai GaṇL; ṭaḥkāre PDok (as 59c); ṭāḥkāre GaṇUn.; āpa-saṁsthitah] corr. (nom. sing. for f. plur., °a-s° for °h s° or °s s°, m.c.); āpaḥ saṁsthitah GaṇEd; āpa saṁsthitah GaṇL; hapa saṁsthitah PDok; āpa saṁsthitah TGaṇ, GaṇUd 59c kiḥkāraś ca] corr.; kiḥkaraś ca, GaṇL, TGaṇ, GaṇUd, PDok (as 59b); kiḥkāre GaṇEd (em.); mahātejah] corr.; mahatejah TGaṇ, GaṇUd; mahāteja GaṇEd (GaṇL); hūmkāre] em.; hūmkare TGaṇ, GaṇUd; umkāre GaṇEd; umkarai GaṇL; umkāre PDok; 59d bāyu] em. (m. sing. acc. ending °m dropped m.c.); vāyūm GaṇEd; bayu GaṇL, GaṇUd, PDok; saṁnyaset] GaṇEd; sanya-set PDok; śanyašet GaṇL; śanyašet GaṇUd; śūnyayet TGaṇ 60a phaṭkārākāśa-saṁyuktaḥ] em. (°rā° for °ra ā° [°e + ā°] (double *sandhi*), and °a-s° for °aḥ s°, m.c.); phaṭkārākāśasaṁyukto GaṇEd; phaṭkārākāśasaṁyuktaḥ

GaṇL; phaṭkārākāśasaṁyuktaḥ TGaṇ, GaṇUd; phan-kare kasa saṁyuktaḥ PDok 60b mahāpātakanāśāya] em. GaṇEd (°śā° unmetrical); mahāpātakanāśāya GaṇL; mahāpātakanasaya GaṇUd; mahāpātakanasaya TGaṇ, PDok 60c pañcāṅgaṁ japayed vidvān] conj.; pañcāṅgaṁ japed yo vidvān GaṇEd (em.); pañcāṅgaṁ japayet vidvān GaṇUd; pañcāṅgaṁ japayaid vidvān GaṇL; pañcāṅgaṁ japayet vidvān TGaṇ; pañcāṅgaṁ japayet vidvān PDok 60d avāpnuyāt] corr. GaṇEd; avasnuyat GaṇL, GaṇUd, TGaṇ, PDok

In the JAḤ the earth is known [to reside]; in the ṬAḤ is placed the water. The KIḤ is full of fire; [one] should place the wind in the HŪM. (59) The PHAṬ is fixed in the space. For the annihilation of great sins, the wise should mutter the [mantra of] Five Units, so that he may reach the world of Śiva. (60)

JAḤ, ṬAḤ, KIḤ, HŪM, PHAṬ: Thus is the sacred [mantra] of Five Units. The visualization of Śiva should be muttered. Great sins are annihilated by means of it.

The two *ślokas*, composed in a typically ‘Tantric register’ of Sanskrit, attest virtually the same re-configured version of the mantric sequence ṬAKI JAḤ HŪM found in the *Pañcakāṇḍastava*. In both the Sanskrit verses and the Old Javanese gloss, the sequence ṬAKI is divided into its constituents ṬA and KI, each of which is provided with a *visarga*.¹⁸ The mantra PHAṬ occurs in place of the svĀHĀ attested in the Ratu Boko gold foil.¹⁹ The fivefold mantric sequence JAḤ ṬAḤ KIḤ HŪM PHAṬ is called *pañcāṅga* (my emendation from *pañcāṇḍa*) in both the *śloka* and the Old Javanese gloss, meaning the ‘(Mantra of) Five Units’; but one manuscript attests the reading *pañcakāṇḍa* in the gloss, which mirrors

this part bears to the two *ślokas* following thereupon seems to be limited to the statement, found in the end of paragraph 19, that the obtainment of release (*kapadamokṣan*) corresponds to *śivapada*, which may be linked to *śloka* 61d, which speaks about the obtainment of *śivaloka*.

15. The passage has been collated from five different witnesses, namely the edited text and the single manuscript it stems from (= *Īśvara Uvāca Gaṇapati Matakvan*, K2411 ≈ LOr 11461), and three versions of the *Gaṇapatitattva* proper (for the sigla used in the apparatus, see the primary sources section at the end of this chapter).

16. jaḥ / ṭaḥ / kiḥ / hūm / phaṭ] em.; / jah / ṭah / kih / um / phaṭ GaṇEd; jaḥ / ṭaḥ / kiḥ / hūm / phaṭ GaṇL (?); jah / tah / kih / um / phaṭ PDok; jaḥ / ṭaḥ / kiḥ / hūm / phaṭ GaṇUd

17. pañcāṅga] em.; pañcāṇḍa GaṇUd, pañcandha PDok; pañcakāṇḍa GaṇEd, pañcakāṇḍha GaṇL.

18. The *visarga* in the syllables *jaḥ ṭaḥ kiḥ* might have been part of the first person singular nominative declension, but appears to have been understood by the compiler of the *śloka* as an integral part of the single mantric units (for he wrote *jaḥkāra* and not *jakāra*, etc.). This form has been retained in the Old Javanese commentary.

19. A similar form of the mantra is attested in a book of *yantra* etc. drawn up by Newar artisans in the Ming dynasty, where it is given as OM ṬAKKIRĀJA HŪM PHAṬ (i.e., the signature mantra of Ṭakki). In fact, what may be the earliest attestations of the mantra ṬTAKKI HŪM PHAṬ is in the STTS (ed. 200, lines 12–14), where it is connected with magical ‘killing with a glance’ (*vajraṣṭayā nirikṣed ... maraṇam āpnuyāt*). I thank Iain Sinclair for these references (email dated 30 August 2014; cf. Sinclair 2013).

Table 13.1: Correspondences between mantric units and visualizations in OJ commentary, GNP 60–61

PHAṬ	space	Paramaśivadhyāna	final release (<i>mokṣa</i>)
HŪṢ	wind	Rudradhyāna	destruction of enemies (<i>ripusamhāra</i>)
KIḤ	fire	Mahādevadhyāna	success in the world (<i>kasvasthan in rāt</i>)*
TAḤ	water	Śaṅkaradhyāna	accomplishment of all actions (<i>sakārya siddha</i>)**
JAḤ	earth	Īśvaradhyāna	affection of somebody (<i>kasihana denin janma</i>)

* Here I follow GaṇL (*kasvastan*) and GaṇUd (*kaśvastan*), against GaṇEd (*kasvastyan*).

** Here I follow PDok and GaṇUd against GaṇEd (*sakāryanta siddha*) and GaṇL (*sakāryantā*).

the title of the Balinese *stuti*.²⁰ In the *śloka*s these units are linked to the five elementals, whereas in the Old Javanese gloss they are declared to constitute the visualization of Śiva (*śivadhyāna*). A notable feature, attested in both the *Gaṇapatitattva* and the Balinese *stuti*, is the transformation of the original sequence ṬAKI JAḤ into JAḤ TAḤ KIḤ, which may represent an instance of purposeful ‘inversion’.²¹

The continuation of the first paragraph of the Old Javanese gloss seems to be an addition, and yet is apparently related to *śloka*s 60–61. So is the second paragraph, as well as the four *śloka*s and eulogy that bring the text to its end. The first paragraph elaborates on *śivadhyāna*, prescribing the muttering (*japa*) of AṢ-AḤ sixteen times, the fruit of which is purity (*nirmala*).²² The remaining part of the first paragraph describes a fivefold visualization technique (*dhyāna*) aimed at obtaining specific

faculties. This is hierarchically ordered from the highest to the lowest attainment, as corresponding to the highest and lowest manifestations of Śiva. Although there is no explicit indication in the Old Javanese commentary that the five forms of visualization following thereupon are connected to each one of the five mantric units detailed in the *śloka*, the redactor might have implied thus, in order to obtain the list of correspondences illustrated in Table 13.1.²³

The progression is from the foremost visualization of Paramaśiva, connected with the subtlest element of space or ether (*ākāśa*),²⁴ the mantra PHAṬ,

20. *Aṅga* is a common technical term for the constituents of a mantra, whereas *aṇḍa* (‘egg’) does not make sense here. The reading *pañcakāṇḍam* supported by GaṇL may represent a ‘contamination’, in the light of the attestation of the form in several mss. of the Balinese *stuti Pañcakāṇḍa*, and perhaps also because of semantic overlap (*kāṇḍa* = ‘part, unit, portion, division, constituent’; compare *khaṇḍa* ‘piece, part, fragment, portion, section’, and *skandha* ‘part, division, section’; *pañcaskandha* is a well-attested unit in Buddhist literature, e.g. in the *Guhyasamāja* exegesis, where it represents the five constituent elements of being). The causative form *japayed* attested in all mss. may be the outcome of the insertion of one extra syllable as required by the metre, or may represent a corruption of *japed yo vidvān*.

21. Compare the mantra ‘ṬAKI HŪṢ JAḤ JAḤ HŪṢ KIṬA H(Ū)[Ṣ] ṬAKI (DHUṢ) KIṬA DHU(Ṣ)...’ engraved on a lead-bronze foil from Borobudur, where the sequences JAḤ HŪṢ KIṬA and KIṬA DHU(Ṣ) may represent inversions of ṬAKI HŪṢ JAḤ and ṬAKI DHU(Ṣ) respectively; Griffiths (2014b: 25) notes the inversion with respect to the element KIṬA.

22. Perhaps here the Sanskrit (and Old Javanese) *nirmala* should be understood as being equivalent to the Sanskrit abstract noun *nirmalatva* (‘purity’).

23. The redactions of the text corresponding to the ms. titled *Tatva Gaṇapati* (TGaṇ ≈ LOr 14982) add *yan sadāśivadhyāna dīrghāyusa phalanya* (spelling standardized) between Śivadhyāna and Rudradhyāna, against the redactions corresponding to the edited version of the *Gaṇapatitattva* and ms. titled *Īśvara Uvāca Gaṇapati Matakvān*. This sentence may be an addition as it disrupts the fivefold arrangement and the correspondence with the elements of the mantra in the *śloka*. As far as the fivefold hierarchical arrangement is concerned, it is tempting to detect a spatial arrangement as well, where the four main points of the compass plus the centre are linked to the five deities presiding over/associated with the respective direction. If one links the names of the manifestations of Śiva mentioned in the passage to the corresponding deities known from the *navasaṇa* arrangement that has survived down to modern Bali, the resulting arrangement, starting from the east and proceeding in counterclockwise direction, would be as follows: Īśvara in the east (like Indra, he rides an elephant in Balinese iconography), Śaṅkara in the northwest, Mahādeva in the west, Rudra in the southwest, and Paramaśiva in the centre.

24. This is in harmony with the widespread homologization of the highest form of godhead (or paramount metaphysical entity, such as the Self, or even a yogic attainment, such as *tarka*) to space (*ākāśa*)—and, at the same time, ‘emptiness’ (*śūnya[tā]*)—attested in several texts of both Śaiva and Buddhist persuasion from the Indonesian Archi-

and the attainment of liberation, to the lowest visualization of Īśvara, connected with the coarsest element earth (*pr̥thivī*), the mantra JAḤ, and the securing of the affection of somebody.²⁵

The paragraph ends with a characterization of the mantras AṂ-AḤ—the former is 'the seed-syllable of the Soul' (*ātmabijākṣara*), the latter 'the seed of emptiness' (*śūnyatābija*); together, they are called 'the great union' (*mahāsaṃyoga*). They should be used with restraint. The section ends with a caption *iti saṃ hyaṃ mahājapa* '[here ends] the sacred Great Muttering [formula]', which is a paramount secret (*paramarahasya*).

The second paragraph links the Sanskrit word *khaḍgarāvaṇa* (see below) to the mantric sequence OM HA KA ŚA MA LA VA RA YAṂ UṂ,²⁶ which should be visualized (*khaḍgāraṇya*) as Ardhanārīśvara (a half-male, half-female form of Śiva). The ten syllables should be placed in the body following a clockwise direction (*pradakṣiṇākrama*); this results in the obtainment of impenetrability from any kind of weapons (*tan kataman iṃ sarvvasaṅjāta*) and being free from all hindrances (*luput iṃ sarvvaviḡhna*). Then the concentration (*anuṣṭhāna*) of the *mṛtyuñjaya* should be performed, as follows: OM in the fontanelle, AṂ in the mouth, KAṂ in the throat, AḤ in the cavity of the earth, AṂ from the navel down to the feet; these go together with the ten-syllable mantra (*daśākṣaramantra*) from the crest to the feet, and also with the mantra MAṂ (i.e., JŪM?) SAḤ VAUṢAṬ MṚTYUÑJAYĀYA NAMAḤ SVĀHĀ VAṢAṬ (see below, n. 43).

Śloka 61 elaborates on the *mṛtyuñjayamantra*, granting long life (*dirghāyusa*) and victory in battle (*saṅgramavijaya*).²⁷ The Old Javanese gloss simply

states that it is not to be used or revealed indiscriminately, and that its aim is to keep death far away (*hayva cāvuh, madoh maraṇa donira tālas*).²⁸ The word *tālas* ('finished', 'the end') suggests that the original text ended here.²⁹ The 'exorcism (by means of) Gaṇapati' that follows—attested only in the edited *Gaṇapatitattva* (= *Īśvara Uvāca Gaṇapati Matakvan*)—starts with an Old Javanese passage containing instructions for a *pūjā* to invoke the intervention of the elephant-headed god against the damage caused by field-mice.³⁰ The three *ślokas*, constituting the mantra to be employed in the *pūjā*, eulogize Gaṇapati as the son of Śiva who destroys all poisons (*sarvaviṣavināśana*) and calamities (*roga*), and bestows success (*siddhārthada*). The text ends with a short auspicious formula in honour of Gaṇapati and Sarasvatī, by which one obtains long life and prosperity.³¹

28. This is the correct reading, as shown by Hooykaas (1962: 315), versus the *hayva cāvuh, adomraṇa denira tālas* of the edition (however, the variant *denira*, 'by means of it', is permissible and attested in some manuscripts). I do not agree with Hooykaas' translation of *marāṇa* (*māraṇa*) as 'field-mice', but take it in its most evident meaning of 'death, killing', which is consonant with the content of the *śloka* devoted to the Mṛtyuñjaya mantra. It is evident that Hooykaas was misled by the contents of the *pañlukatan gaṇapati* that follows thereupon, which deals with 'agricultural exorcism'; it is entirely possible that the compiler of the 'mature' redaction of the *Gaṇapatitattva* took *marāṇa* to mean 'field-mice', but the same reasoning cannot be applied retrospectively to the Old Javanese gloss of *śloka* 61.

29. The 'intermediate' version of the *Gaṇapatitattva* from ms. PDok, as well as the *Tutur Kamokṣan*, end here indeed.

30. Hooykaas (1962: 315–16) described this as 'an additional note for peasants ... only a rustic and picturesque accretion to our philosophical/metaphysical text'. The practitioner is prompted to 'make a circuit (*scilicet*: of his rice-field), using an "ivory bamboo" (*scilicet*: adorned with) a drawing of Gaṇapati, with a disc [*cakra*] in His left hand and a cudgel [*gadā*] in His right' (ibid.: 315). This kind of 'agricultural magic' does not represent an 'indigenous' Balinese invention, but has clear parallels in South Asia. In current Indian harvest festivals, and also in folk literature, Gaṇapati is worshipped as a 'harvest hero', and especially as a destroyer of mice (he is often portrayed as riding a rat, his vehicle): see Michael 1983.

31. *Om ghumuṃ gaṇapataye namaḥ / om sarasvatyai namaḥ / om siddhir astu / tad astu / astu // om dirghāyusaṃ sukhaśriyā / darśanāt tava vṛddhiśriyā //*

pelago (see, e.g., Gonda 1971; Aciri 2011a: 347, 589); also note that a Chinese Buddhist text attributed to Śubhākarasimha links Mahāvairocana—the highest Tathāgata—with space and the centre (see Damais 1969: 85–86).

25. This amounts to a form of *vaśīkaraṇa*: cf. below.

26. This mantra, which still plays an important role in the theology and yogic praxis of present-day Balinese Hinduism, is indeed a variant of the old, in origin Saiddhāntika, Śaiva mantra *nāvātman*, most often represented by the sequence RHRKṢMLVYŪM (see Padoux 2011: 58–60).

27. Compare *Pañcakāṇḍastava* 3cd, 5 manuscripts of which read: *dirghāyusaṃ avāpnoti, saṅgrāme vijayī bhavet*, and *Gaṇapatitattva* 61cd (ed. 56cd): *dirghāyusaṃ avāpnoti saṅgramavijayī bhavet*.

A KIND OF MAGIC? THE RATU BOKO GOLD FOIL AS A YANTRA

The mantra JAḤ-ṬAḤ-KIḤ-HŪM-PHAṬ is apparently associated in the *Gaṇapatitattva* with purification, averting of calamity, and bestowal of supernatural goals. Both the *ślokas* and the Old Javanese gloss declare that the use of the five-unit mantra is ‘for the annihilation of great sins’ (*mahāpātakanāśa*), which results in the attainment of *śivaloka*. The Old Javanese gloss implies that the murmuring of the five units amounts to *śivadhyaṇa*, which is connected to the mantra AṂ AḤ (the so-called *rva bhineda* formula that is widespread in Javano-Balinese lore). A similar stress on purification, averting of calamity and sins, and bestowal of supernatural goals is found in *ślokas* 61–64 (56–59 ed.) on *mṛtyuñjaya* and Gaṇapati-related mantras, as well as in the *Pañcakāṇḍastava*.³²

Three of the goals listed in the Old Javanese gloss to *Gaṇapatitattva* 59–60, namely the destruction of enemies (aptly homologized with Rudra, the destructive form of Śiva), worldly success, and attracting the affection of somebody, apparently correspond to the operations of *māraṇa*, *puṣṭi* and *vaśikaraṇa* respectively, which we find in the ‘six acts/practices’ or ‘six rites of magic’ (*ṣaṭkarmāṇi*). Sanskrit literature, from the *Atharvaveda* to Tantric texts of Śaiva, Buddhist, and even Jaina and Vaiṣṇava persuasion, defines ritual practices connected with protection, pacification, exorcism, incantation, and the acquisition or cultivation of prosperity, according to different systematizations. The standard, ‘mature’ list as defined in many Tantric works is the one adopted by the early 16th-century Śaiva author Mahīdhara in his manual *Mantrama-*

hodadhi,³³ which comprises appeasement (*śānti*), subjugation (*vaśya*, *vaśikaraṇa*), immobilization (*stambha*, *stambhana*), enmity (*dveṣa*, *vidveṣa*), eradication (*uccāṭana*), and liquidation (*māraṇa*); but other sources also attest lists of four or fewer elements,³⁴ while sources listing nine elements—the aforementioned six plus delusion (*mohana*), attraction (*ākaraṇa*),³⁵ and acquisition (*puṣṭi*)—are also known. In fact *ākaraṇa* (i.e., bringing a person under the practitioner’s control), even if it is not included in the ‘standard’ list of six acts, is ‘one of the best known and most widely performed acts of magic’ (Goudriaan 1978: 294), and as such it plays an important role in many of the documents discussed here. As I have mentioned above, the ṬAKI JAḤ HŪM mantra has been linked to a context of mantric subjugation; and since the version of the mantra attested on the Ratu Boko gold foil and the version in the *Gaṇapatitattva* seem to have been used in a context of magic, an investigation of selected key sources related to magical practices in Buddhist and Śaiva contexts may throw light on the contexts and purposes of the mantra.

Let us turn to Chapter 25 of the *Mantramahodadhi*. In verses 30–32ab Mahīdhara declares that in the six rites the seed syllables of a *yantra*—a ‘coercive diagram’ (Brunner 2003: 164–65)³⁶—consist of

32. Compare the *stuti*’s *sarvaviḥnavināśanam*, *sarvakleśavināśanam*, *bhuktilābham*, *sarvarogavināśanam*, *pavitram pāpasakalam*, and *sarvapāpavināśāya* with *Gaṇapatitattva*’s *sarvaviḥnavināśanam*, *parāṇi rogāṇi murchantam*, *siddhārthadam* (62–64 = ed. 57–59), and *mahāpātakanāśāya/mahāpātakavināśa* (*ślokas* and commentary 59–60 = ed. 54–55). In particular, note that *Gaṇapatitattva* 61cd (ed. 56cd) is the same as *Pañcakāṇḍastava* 3cd (see my n. 27 above); the whole *śloka* 3 of the latter source is also attested in the Balinese ritual text *Pūjā Kṣatriya* (ms. PKTb, as stanza 3 of the Śaiva *stuti* no. 13): cf. below, n. 43 and 46.

33. Being a systematic manual compiled on the basis of several earlier authoritative texts, the *Mantramahodadhi* remains a valuable source on the *ṣaṭkarmāṇi* in spite of its relatively late date of composition. A translation and analysis of Chapter 25 of this text, which I will draw from in my discussion, may be found in Bühnemann 2000.

34. In fact Vedic sources already subdivide all *karman* (in the sense of ritual) into three kinds, namely *śānti* (pacification), *puṣṭi* (welfare or acquisition), and *abhicāra* (harming others) (Goudriaan 1978: 252).

35. In some other lists, *ākaraṇa*—which is relevant to our discussion—replaces *śānti*, especially in (con)texts where the rite assumes a more cruel appearance (Goudriaan 1978: 260–61).

36. Cf. Sanderson’s (2004: 290) definition of *yantra* as ‘a Mantra-inscribed diagram written in various colours and with various inks on cloth, birchbark, the hides of various animals and the like, wrapped up and then employed in various ways (by being worn as an amulet, by being buried in a cremation ground, and so on) for purposes such as warding off ills, harming an enemy, or forcing a person to submit to the user’s will’. Iain Sinclair (email dated 30 December 2014) pointed out to me that many Nepalese

the letters of the moon, water, earth, ether, wind, and fire (Bühnemann 2000: 457). One may wonder whether the correlation between the five syllables JAḤ-ṬAḤ-KIḤ-HU(/Ū)M-PHAṬ and the five elements in the *Pañcakāṇḍastava*, as also between the last two series and the five manifestations of Śiva in the *Gaṇapatitattva*, reflect an analogous systematization, as well as the widespread idea that, by connecting (on a subtle level) syllables or mantras to elements, the latter are purified. Correlations between five mantras, the five elements, and five Tathāgatas, are often found in Tantric Buddhist *maṇḍalas* (see e.g., Kandahjaya 2009, table 4, and my n. 23 above), so this idea need not be distinctively Śaiva.

The *Mantramahodadhi* (verses 17cd–23ab, see Bühnemann 2000: 449 and table 26.5) describes six arrangements for connecting the mantra to be uttered in each rite with the letters of the name of the victim of the magical act; such methods may include the insertion of the victim's name at the end, or the insertion of letters between its syllables, and so on. Padoux (2011: 96–97), describing in detail analogous practices on the basis of *Netratantra* Ch. 18 and Kṣemarāja's commentary, characterizes the technique called *samputa* as the symbolic 'encasing' of a mantra 'or any part thereof, or any element with which it is associated) inside a space or casket, covered as with a lid or within two covers'. He adds that in his commentary on *Netratantra* 6.18 Kṣemarāja describes a written procedure: *mantram ādau likhet*,³⁷ similarly, in *Agnipurāṇa* Ch. 138, 'where *samputa* is prescribed for the magical action of *vaśikaraṇa* and *ākaraṇa*, it is described as the placing of the mantra around the *sādhya*—above, under and to its right and left: a spatial pattern, not an oral operation'.³⁸ This practice, which is signifi-

cantly associated with *vaśikaraṇa* and *ākaraṇa*, resonates with the encasing of the personal *raka* title 'Panaraban' (and 'Khanipas') on the Ratu Boko gold foil within the circular *ī* of the mantra *ṭakī*. It is therefore not too far-fetched to assume, as was done by Sundberg (2003: 177), that the inscription of Panaraban's personal title within a grapheme was intended to infix it 'as a vital component of the sacred mantra'. Whatever the actual intended procedure might have been, the practices described in the Sanskrit documents presented above would seem to support the link with practices of adduction and subjugation hypothesized by Sundberg as well as Jordaan and Colless, and lead us to regard the Ratu Boko gold foil as a *yantra* of coercive magic.

Exploring further the hypothesis that the Ratu Boko artefact indeed might have constituted a *yantra*, I turn again to the *Mantramahodadhi*, which in verses 23cd–26ab (Bühnemann 2000: 455–56, and table 26) describes the symbolic shapes of the elements that have to be drawn in such *yantras*: for subjugation this is a triangle endowed with *svastikas*, for immobilization it is a square connected with thunderbolts (*vajra*), and for enmity it is a circle. Other sources give different combinations, namely *vajra* and liquidation, square and pacification, circle and pacification, subjugation, eradication, or acquisition (see Goudriaan 1978: 292). An early Śaiva Tantra, the *Brahmayāmala*, declares that the practitioner 'should draw a square and write [the target's] name in its centre' (5.78cd–79ab, Kiss 2014: 212). We may connect these ideas to the shape of the Ratu Boko artefact and see in the vaguely *vajra*-shaped double quadrangle a counterpart of the 'square connected with thunderbolts' associated with subjugation; on the other

Buddhist mantra manuscripts attest a placeholder for the name of the 'target', usually 'Devadatta', and that while Buddhists classically used terms such as *raśācakra*, contemporary Newar Vajrācāryas talk about *yantra* (*jantra*). On examples of *yantras* found in early Śaiva Tantras, see Kiss 2014.

37. Sanderson (2004: 290) draws attention to Kṣemarāja's definition (*ad Netratantra* 20.59c) of a *yantracakraṃ* as 'a series of Mantras written in a particular spatial arrangement ... *yantracakraṃ viśiṣṭasaṃniveśalikhito mantrasamūhaḥ*'.

38. Compare also Padoux's (2011: 97–98) description of techniques that appear to be related to *samputa*, namely:

grasta ('swallowed or eclipsed, but also surrounded'), which is in fact what *Agnipurāṇa* Ch. 138 calls *samputīkaraṇa*; *ākraṇa* ('seized or invaded'—applying to the name of the victim, which Kṣemarāja characterizes as 'when the mantra is placed so as to surround the name which is in the centre'; Padoux sees this as a variant of what is called *grasta* by the *Netratantra* and *samputīkaraṇa* by the *Agnipurāṇa*); *garbhastha*: this corresponds to the *Agnipurāṇa*'s definition of *samputa*, except that Kṣemarāja on *Netratantra* 'mentions the four directions of space instead of the four sides of the written mantra. It is also the reversal of what is defined as *grasta*. Like the AgP's *samputa*, this can be done only in writing'.

hand, the engraving of the *raka* title *panarabvan* (and, perhaps, the personal name *khanipas*) within the circle of two of the *ī* signs may correspond to ‘enmity’, as per Mahīdhara, or again subjugation, according to an alternative list. Although no definitive conclusion can be drawn, it seems safe to assume that the choice of these shapes was not entirely arbitrary but reflected systematizations described in manuals of *yantra*-magic.

Further, Mahīdhara associates six closing words of mantras with the respective acts, namely *NAMAḤ* and pacification, *SVĀHĀ* and subjugation, *VAṢAṬ* and immobilization, *VAUṢAṬ* and enmity, *HŪM* and eradication, *PHAṬ* and liquidation (verses 32cd–33ab, Bühnemann 2000: 457). According to this categorization, the closing *SVĀHĀ* in the ‘Ratu Boko version’ of the mantra would neatly correspond to subjugation;³⁹ on the other hand, the closing *PHAṬ* in the series attested in the *Pañcakāṇḍastava* and *Gaṇapatitattva* may be linked to liquidation.⁴⁰ But, also in this case, different systematizations exist, and it is therefore difficult to establish with certainty which one was used as a prototype by the authors of these documents;⁴¹ we may just conclude that although the details differ widely, the principles underlying the application were probably the same. I should also like to point out that such formulas as *NAMAḤ*, *SVĀHĀ* and *PHAṬ*, together with the beginning *OM*, constitute very general mantric units

that enclose *bijamantras* to form effective mantric sequences, and therefore need not necessarily be connected with a particular function.⁴²

Let us turn to the *Gaṇapatitattva* again. The mention of Khadgarāvaṇa, the ten syllables, and the *mṛtyuñjaya* mantra⁴³ in the second paragraph of the Old Javanese commentary to *śloka*s 59–60 offers a hint to the fact that the mantra *JAḤ-ṬAḤ-KIḤ-HŪM-PHAṬ* was meant to be employed—as, it appears, also in the *Pañcakāṇḍa*—in a context of Tantric magic. Khadgarāvaṇa is the chief deity of the Bhūtatantras of the exorcistic Paścimasrotas division of the Mantramārga (Sanderson 2003–4: 374), a Rudra possessing the demonic identity of both Rāvaṇa and Bhairava, who presides over evil beings and is invoked in his capacity as lord of the *bhūtas* (*bhūtanātha*) to chase them away.⁴⁴ The *mṛtyuñjaya* (‘Conqueror of Death’) is both a mantra and a god—the Old Javanese commentary indeed calls it a *deva*—i.e., a mantric representation of the form of Śiva called *Mṛtyuñjaya*, *Mṛtyujit* or *Amṛteśa* (see White 2012; Padoux 2011: 95); besides granting, as the *śloka* and the Old Javanese commentary puts it, impenetrability from all weapons, long life, and victory in battle,⁴⁵ it also ensures ‘freedom from

39. The *Hevajratāntra* (II, ix.21) describes a mantra of attraction (*ākaraṣaṇa*)—which is in fact related to subjugation (*vaśikaraṇa*) in that text—made up by the syllables *OM*, *HŪM*, and the closing *SVĀHĀ* (in connection with the names of celestial nymphs to be attracted): see Nihom 1995: 524–25. On the other hand, Sundberg (2003: 178) envisaged an element of ‘auspiciousness’ in it, for *SVĀHĀ* is admittedly an exclamation of blessing used in benign contexts, be they mantric, ritual, or otherwise. Contrast my remark about the sequence *OM* ... *SVĀHĀ* below, as well as my nn. 42, 44.

40. This would be in harmony with the goal of final liberation (*mokṣa*): besides noting the mention of *māraṇa*, I refer to Goudriaan’s (1978: 74) definition of *phaṭ* as a word ‘loaded with magic’, a ‘sonic explosion’ used for piercing.

41. The Vaiṣṇava Pāñcarātra *Jayākhyasamhitā* prescribes *SVĀHĀ* for *homa*, *SVADHĀ* for ancestor worship, *PHAṬ* for destructive activities, *HŪM* for creating hatred, and *NAMAḤ* for release (Goudriaan 1978: 74); other combinations are found in different texts, namely *PHAṬ* with *vidveṣana*, *uc-cāṭana* and *māraṇa*; *SVĀHĀ* with *śānti*, *ākaraṣaṇa* and *puṣṭi*; *HŪM* with *vidveṣana* and *māraṇa* (ibid.: 75, 288).

42. Griffiths (2014a: 177, n. 125) notes that the absence of *svāhā* in the sequence [OM] ṬAKI HŪM JAḤ attested in some Sanskrit, Tibetan and Old Javanese documents ‘can be considered a trivial difference’.

43. The mantra *OM MAḤ SAḤ* in the sequence *OM MAḤ SAḤ VAUṢAṬ / MṚTYUÑJAYĀYA NAMAḤ SVĀHĀ VAṢAṬ* should probably be emended to *OM JUḤ SAḤ* on the basis of the reading *OM MJUṆ SAḤ* in GaṇUd and in the prose part of Stuti 453, *Mṛtyuñjaya* (which is found, interestingly, only in the *Pūjā Kṣatriya*: cf. n. 46). *OM JUḤ SAḤ* is indeed the base-mantra (*mūlamantra*) of Amṛteśvara/Mṛtyujit/Mṛtyuñjaya (see Sanderson 2004: 260; Padoux 2011: 95). In *Kriyākālaguṇottara* 9.45, the sequence *OM JUḤ SAḤ SVĀHĀ* is invoked as the armour (*kavaca*) of the *mūlamantra* of Khadgarāvaṇa (see Slouber 2007: 73).

44. Chapter 9 of the *Kriyākālaguṇottara* (verses 39–44, ed. Slouber 2007) relates that by chanting the heart mantra, *OM BHŪTAPATI SVĀHĀ*, one is able to subjugate (*vaśam*) and drive off spirits, subjugate even the gods, and perform the six acts by thought alone. Khadgarāvaṇa is also mentioned in the Balinese ritual for the preparation of consecrated water (Hooikaas 1974: 54).

45. Besides in the *Netratāntra* (see Padoux 2011: 95–96), the *mṛtyuñjaya* is featured in the context of *ṣaṭkarmāṇi* in the Sanskrit *Siddhayogeśvarīmata*, a text of the Kaula

hindrances' (*luput in sarvvavighna*), which may be linked to another function of this all-powerful mantra, namely controlling, routing, and destroying demons 'with total efficacy' (White 2012: 145). In fact the *mṛtyuñjaya* mantric lore has a royal dimension to it, converging with the exorcistic aspect.⁴⁶ This is apparent, for instance, in Chapter 19 of the *Netratantra*—a pre-9th century Kashmirian text devoted to the cult of Mṛtyujit/Amṛteśa. As pointed out by Sanderson (2004: 246), this chapter 'details procedures for countering possession by various classes of being. Here the Guru's role is portrayed almost exclusively as that of priest to the royal family'.⁴⁷

stream of Śaivism. It considers the objectives of the six rites as *siddhis*, divided into the categories of *sāttvika*, *rājasa* and *tāmasa* (Törzsök 2000: 138–39). The *sāttvika* include, e.g., well-being (*puṣṭi*), expiation or pacification (*śānti*), conquering death (*mṛtyuñjaya*), and final release (*mokṣa*); the *rājasa* include, e.g., subjugating people to one's will (*vaśya*) and attracting people (*ākaraṇa*); the *tāmasa* include, e.g., murder (*māraṇa*) and annihilation (*jambhana*)—compare the analogous goals of final release, destruction of enemies, success in the world, and attracting the affection of somebody in the first paragraph of the Old Javanese commentary to *śloka* 59–60, and long life and victory in battle in *śloka* 61.

46. This royal dimension is also suggested by the fact that the half-*śloka* *dirghāyusam ... saṅgrāmahavijāyī bhavet* attested in (some manuscripts of) the apotropaic *Pañcakāṇḍa* 3cd and in the *mṛtyuñjaya*-focused *śloka* 61cd of the *Gaṇapatitattva* has a parallel in the *Pūjā Kṣatriya*, a ritual compilation with Vaiṣṇava overtones that apparently contains materials geared towards the protection of royal committers (see Goudriaan and Hooykaas 1971: 281).

47. Sanderson (2004) has made a number of points that are directly relevant to the themes I am treating here. When discussing the nineteenth chapter of the *Netratantra* in connection with the rites performed by Śaiva and Buddhist royal chaplains for the protection of the kingdoms of their patrons, he (2004: 233) notes that the 'protective, therapeutic, and aggressive rites for the benefit of the monarch and the kingdom' performed by *rājagurus* were grounded in the Tantras of the Śaiva Mantramārga. On the basis of *Atharvavedaparīśiṣṭa* 3.1.10, Sanderson (ibid.: 239) describes '(1) rituals to ward off dangers and ills of every kind from the king and his kingdom (*śāntikaṃ karma*), some of them simple rites to protect the king's person to be performed at various times every day, others much more elaborate ceremonies to be performed periodically, (2) rituals to restore his health and vigour (*pauṣṭikaṃ karma*), (3) rituals to harm his enemies (*ābhicārikaṃ karma*), (4) the regular and

THE 'RATU BOKO MANTRA' AND GAṆAPATI: ON TAMING DEMONS...

Several elements in both the *Pañcakāṇḍa* hymn and the closing section of the *Gaṇapatitattva* conjure up a context of magic and exorcism, i.e. dispelling or pacifying 'demonic agents, hostile to well-being' (Linrothe 1999: 24), or 'beings that cause injury' (*himsaka*; see White 2012: 148). The crescendo of apotropaic magic culminates in the 'agricultural exorcism' of the *pañlukatan gaṇapati*, which at some point was inserted into the textual transmission. The insertion of this material as a conclusion to a text dominated by the figure of Gaṇapati is appropriate, for Gaṇapati, beside being the remover of obstacles (*vighnāntakṛt*) par excellence, is also the 'Lord (*pati*) of Demonic Hosts (*gaṇa*)'. As White (2012: 149) puts it, such beings as *yakṣas*, *rākṣasas*, *grahas*, *vināyakas*, and so forth

can only be controlled by placating the masters of their respective hosts: that is, one of the Seven Mothers, or gods like Bhairava, Gaṇapati, Virabhadra, or Hanumān. These multiple Spirit Lords (*bhūteśvaras*, *bhūtanāthas*)—generic terms already attested in the Āyurvedic literature ... and that continue to be employed throughout modern-day South Asia—constituted the original pantheons of the 'Bhūta Tantras'.

White (2012: 150) notes that the *Netratantra* itself, and texts of later Tantric traditions, came to subsume the *bhūtanāthas* beneath a principal deity (e.g., Amṛteśa), and relegated them to

the maṇḍala's dark fringe ... where the *bhūtanāthas*, now reduced to the status of guardians at the gates, were mobilised to wall out the demonic horde that would have liked nothing better than to break through and devour everyone in sight.

The role of 'guardian of the gate' fits the profile of Gaṇapati, who is invoked as remover of obstacles prior to undertaking any activity, and portrayed as

occasional rituals (*nityaṃ karma* and *naimittikaṃ karma*) required of the king, (5) reparatory rites (*prāyaścittiyaṃ karma*), and (6) postmortuary rites (*aurdhvadehikaṃ karma*). See my discussion of the Khmer materials presented by Sanderson below, p. 346.

the boundaries of Hindu and Buddhist temples. It is therefore not surprising that the closing section of the *Gaṇapatitattva* mentions the mantra JAḤ TAḤ KIḤ HŪM PHAṬ side by side with a series of Bhūtanāthas: Khadgarāvaṇa, Mr̥tyuñjaya (or Mr̥tyujit/Amr̥teśabhairava), and Gaṇapati, for all these deities (and the mantras they personify) play a role in dispelling hindrances and malevolent influences.

The dictum *luput in sarvvavighna* ('free from all hindrances'), specifically attributed by the Old Javanese commentary to *śloka*s 59–60 to the *mr̥tyuñjaya* mantra, exactly corresponds to the outcome of the familiar opening benedictory formula *om avighnam astu*, 'let there be no hindrances'. This formula occurs at the beginning of Javanese and Balinese manuscripts, and notably also, as pointed out by Griffiths (2014a: 178), in Old Javanese inscriptions from the 9th century onwards. One of these—the Guluṇ Guluṇ inscription of Śaka 851—starts with *om avighnam astu gaṇapataye namaḥ* (Om, let there be no obstacles! Homage to Gaṇapati!), thereby making the connection with Gaṇapati—the god who removes obstacles—explicit. Griffiths (2014a: 177–78) points out that three brief inscriptions on stone boundary markers from Central Java substitute this common opening with the formula TAḤ KIḤ HŪM JAḤ, which obviously served the purpose of removing obstacles. Interestingly, two out of three of these inscriptions seem to have been recovered from seemingly Śaiva contexts, and both date back to the second half of the 9th century.⁴⁸

Griffiths corroborates the association of the mantra TAḤ KIḤ HŪM JAḤ with removal of obstacles on the one hand, and with *ākaraṣaṇa* on the other, by citing an important parallel from the Tantric Buddhist text *Sarvavajrodaya*, section 56:

He who wishes to effect complete freedom from obstacles should cover them (i.e. the effigies of the directional deities who might cause trouble, pinned down in section 55) with mud. If in this condition (*evam*) they [still] make

trouble, he should immerse himself in [the deity] Vajrahūmkāra and adduct them with the Ṭakkirāja; should also adduct them with the Vajra-goads etc.; should bind the [seal of] Vajrahūmkāra; and should step on the effigy of the obstacle with his left foot. After the practice of [self-]expansion with HŪM VAḤ HŪM etc., he should stand in *pratyālīḍha* stance... (trans. Griffiths 2014a: 178)

To Griffiths, 'it seems that *ṭakkirājenākṛṣya* can be interpreted as "having adducted by reciting the mantra named Ṭakkirāja", and that the intended mantra is the one that concerns us here'. In fact the *Sarvavajrodaya* seems to break up the discrete constituents of a longer mantra. By mentioning, besides Ṭakkirāja, 'also the actions of adduction etc. by means of the *vajra*-goad etc.' (*vajrāṅkuṣādibhir apy ākaraṣaṇādikaṃ kṛtvā*), as well as mentioning the binding of Vajrahūmkāra, the text is apparently referring to the fourfold sequence of actions, instruments, deities, and mantras hinted at in the sequence *vajrāṅkuṣādibhir ākṛṣya praveśya baddhvā vaśīkṛtya* 'having adducted, drawn in, bound, brought under control' in section 55.⁴⁹ Those actions correspond to those detailed in a passage of the Trailokyavijayamahāmaṇḍala section of the *STTS*. Snellgrove (1987: 222–23), pointing to a passage describing a fourfold process by which 'all the Great beings, the Buddhas and the others, are summoned, drawn in, bound, so entering his power', notes that

the four door guardians represent the four stages of introducing the divinities into the *maṇḍala*, which are effected by the mantra JAḤ HŪM VAḤ HOḤ! *Vajrāṅkuṣa* (Vajra-Hook) summons them; *Vajrapāśa* (Vajra-Noose) draws them in; *Vajrasphoṭa* (Vajra-Fetter) binds them and *Vajrāveśa* (Vajra-Penetration) alias *Vajraghaṇṭā* (Vajra-Bell) completes the pervasion of the *maṇḍala* by wisdom.... This fourfold function of the door guardians fully explains their names, which might otherwise appear quite arbitrary

A similar arrangement, with minor variants, is found in the *Sarvadurgatipariśodhanatantra*, in the section where the master introduces his pupil into the *maṇḍala* (ed. Skorupski, p. 103 and 290), in the

48. The three short inscriptions are: a cylindrical stone carved in the Śaiva cave-shrine of Abang, dated 872 (Stutterheim 1932: 293; Damais 1955: 29–30); an (undated) stone post from the Śaiva Candi Bongkol (Stutterheim 1932: 294); a stone post, mentioning a (Buddhist?) *vihāra*, dated 874 (Stutterheim 1932: 296; Damais 1955: 236).

49. Cf. also sections 13 and 40.

Vajraśekhara (one of the explanatory Tantras of the *STTS*), and several other Esoteric Buddhist texts.⁵⁰ The set of correspondences (from below upwards) may be schematized as follows:

HOḤ	North	Vajraghaṇṭā/ Vajrāveśa	<i>vajra</i> -bell/ <i>vajra</i> -penetration	to penetrate/ draw within one's power
VAṂ	West	Vajraśṛṅkhala/ Vajrasphoṭa	<i>vajra</i> -fetter/ <i>vajra</i> -chain	to bind
HŪM	South	Vajrapāśa	<i>vajra</i> - noose	to draw
JAḤ	East	Vajrāṅkuśa	<i>vajra</i> -goad	to adduct

Having noted that the set of names and mantric acts found in *Sarvavajrodaya* 55–56 correspond to those connected to the male gate-guardians of the Vajradhātumaṇḍala of the *STTS* and other Buddhist sources, I should like to make the following points:

(1) The four guardians are personifications of their hand-attributes, namely the hook, noose, chain, and bell, and of the activities and mantric

operations they imply, and as such they are included in the sets of attributes of many wrathful (*krodha*) Buddhist deities, such as (Caṇḍa)Vajrapāṇi/Trailokyavijaya, Yamāntaka, Hevajra, etc., whose function is to tame demonic forms of Śiva.⁵¹ The obvious implication is that in the *Sarvavajrodaya* passage the practitioner is imagined to embody the deity: he is explicitly invited to identify himself with, or connect to, Vajrahūmkāra (*vajrahūmkārayogaṃ kṛtvā*), perform the four actions with the four attributes, bind his 'seal' or *mudrā* (*vajrahūmkāraṃ baddhvā*), and assume the *pratyālīḍha* pose.⁵²

(2) 'Ṭakkirāja' denotes the mantra ṬAKKI, and at the same time a wrathful deity of Esoteric Buddhism linked to Trailokyavijaya, whose function is to eliminate disasters and subdue demons and ghosts; his attributes are the hook and the noose. Similarly, a deity called Vajrarāja, inhabiting the Vajradhātumaṇḍala and associated with Akṣobhya, represents the unit JAḤ and the *aṅkuśa* (as such it is also attested in the Candi Gumpung gold foil: OM VAJRARĀJA JAḤ).

50. On the *STTS* (194.4–14, ed. Lokesh Chandra) and *Vajraśekhara* (49b6/8.17), see Nihom 1998a: 248 and 253, notes 16–17 (*STTS*: *vajrāṅkuśa* + *ākarṣa* + HŪM JJAḤ; *vajrapāśa* + *praveśa* + HŪM HŪM; *vajrasphoṭa* + *bandha* + HŪM VAṂ; *vajrāveśa* + *āveśa* + HUM AḤ; *VŚ*: *aṅkuśa* + *ākarṣa* + HŪM JAḤ; *vajrapāśa* + *praveśa* + HŪM HŪM; *vajrasphoṭa* + *bandha* + HŪM BAṂ; *vajrāveśa* + *āveśa* + HŪM PHAṬ HO). Nihom (ibid.: 248) notes that the *bījas* for Vajrāṅkuśa (JAḤ) and Vajrapāśa (HŪM) correspond to those given in the mantras inscribed on the gold foils recovered from Candi Gumpung in Sumatra, which he regards as reflecting a form of the Garbhadhātumaṇḍala; I cannot however agree with his statement that 'the *bījas* for Vajrasphoṭa, *om* in the Candi Gumpung evidence and *vaṃ*, or *baṃ*, in these two tantras, are different and can not be reconciled', for *o* is a common spelling variant of *va* in documents from ancient Indonesia (therefore OM = VAṂ = BAṂ); on the other hand, the Candi Gumpung text has OM VAJRAMUṢṬI BAṂ. The item reflecting Vajrāveśa is absent. *Sādhanaṃālā* no. 251 lists the sequence JAḤ (*āṇīya*, adduction), HŪM (*praveśa*, penetration), VAṂ (*bandhana*, binding), HOḤ (*toṣaṇa*, satisfaction); no. 97 (*samayamaṇḍala*) gives the feminine names of goddesses (e.g., *vajrāṅkuśī*, *pāśī*, *sphoṭā*, *ghaṇṭā*, associated with the activities of *ākarṣa* and the syllable JAḤ, *praveśa* and HŪM, *bandha* and VAṂ, *vaśikaraṇa* and HOḤ (Goudriaan 1978: 271). An analogous account of feminized deities is found in the Tibetan translation of the *Herukasādhana* of Huṅkāravajra, f. 204r5–7 (see Sanderson 2009: 153, n. 349). See also Sinclair, this volume, p. 50; Snodgrass 1988: 629–33; and fig. 1 in Sharma 2011: 211.

51. See Griffiths (2014b) on the Borobudur inscribed foil attesting a *hṛdaya* invoking Caṇḍavajrapāṇi, where that wrathful deity is characterized as bearing a sword, club, axe, snare, cudgel (*vajra*) and flaming fire, and putting his left and right foot respectively on the breasts of Pārvatī and the locks of Paśupati (Śiva). Griffiths (2014a: 178) notes that in *Guhyasamājatantra* 14.22 the mantra OM ṬAKKI HŪM JAḤ is explicitly called *sarvataṭhāgataṭakkirājamahākrodha*; the *Tattvasaṅgraha* and *Vajraśekhara* characterize the four weapons associated to the guardians of the *maṇḍala* with the epithet *mahākrodha*. The *STTS* relates that Vajrapāṇi issued forth from the hearts of all the assembled Tathāgatas, gathering together to create the body of Mahāvajrakrodha; then Vairocana uttered the mantra OM ṬAKKI JJAḤ, which is the disciplinary *aṅkuśa* of all the Tathāgatas (Davidson 1991: 200).

52. Cf. Griffiths 2014a: 178, n. 130. Goudriaan (1978: 217) quotes a verse of the *Sādhanaṃālā* (71, p. 144) declaring that, when performing subjugation, a practitioner should master attributes such as 'vajra, disc, trident, arrow, hammer, noose, elephant hook, ointment, paste to be smeared on the feet, and painted spot on the forehead'; he argues that the implication from this and similar passages is that the practitioner should meditate on himself as bearing one or more of these attributes. An instance, found in a Dunhuang Tibetan manuscript, of ritual purification of the practitioner and his imaginative transformation of himself into the wrathful Buddha Ṭakkirāja is described by Dalton (2011: 87).

(3) The ‘extended’ mantric sequence given by *Sarvavajrodaya* 56 could be ṬAKKI JAḤ HŪM VAM HOḤ.⁵³ The text is not the only one to add the unit ṬAKKI (*ṭakkirāja*) to the other four: significantly enough, a similar sequence is attested in the fourth Old Javanese stone inscription (9th century) mentioned by Griffiths (2014a: 179), bearing twice the sequence ṬAKI HŪM JAḤ JAḤ HŪM VAM HOḤ—an extended variant of the ṬAKKI JAḤ HŪM mantra.⁵⁴

(4) The mantras ṬAKI (*Ṭakkirāja*) and JAḤ (*Vajrāṅkuśa*) in the *Sarvavajrodaya* are both associated with attraction (*ākaraṣaṇa*, goad),⁵⁵ while HŪM is associated with drawing to oneself (*praveśa*, snare)—which ultimately corresponds to a form of *vaśīkaraṇa*.⁵⁶ Thus, the sequence ṬAKKI JAḤ HŪM implies both attraction (*ākaraṣaṇa*) and drawing to oneself (*vaśīkaraṇa*).⁵⁷ In fact the sources display

a tendency to consider both goad and snare as characteristic of attraction, which constitutes a ‘reflection of the tendency to make attraction a facultative introductory stage to subjugation’ (Goudriaan 1978: 317). As Sundberg (2003: 173) notes, the basic idea of the mantra ṬAKKI (I)JAḤ, as found in the *STTS*,

is that it is the mantra of a ‘hook’, ‘goad’ or a ‘prod’ for summoning, for compulsion, for convocation, the utterance of which has compelled Mahādeva to Sumeru. Iyanaga (1985: 669, note 47) notes that the Japanese commentary provides some control over the meaning of the Sanskrit mantra, which could also be considered as *ākaraṣaṇa* (magic to draw to oneself) or by *vaśīkaraṇa* (magic to draw someone to your will). Davidson (1991: 200) offers ‘dragged’ as a term suitable to connote what happened to the gods after Vairocana intoned the mantra.

At the same time Sundberg (2003: 173) refers to Snellgrove’s (1987: 222–23, quoted above) more articulated reading of the relevant passage of the *STTS*, which ‘serves very well to differentiate the use of the *aṅkuśa* from other Tantric implements’. The four actions of attracting, drawing to oneself, snaring and ‘penetrating’ are those narrated in the main episode in the Trailokyavijaya cycle of the taming of Maheśvara, the lord of demonic hosts. In fact taming or pacification (*śānti*) involves a more elaborate procedure than just the mantric abduction/attraction ([ṬAKKI] JAḤ) and binding (HŪM) of the victim, for it also implies mantric overpowering (= VAM) and resurrection (= HOḤ), after which ‘conversion’ occurs. In view of that fact, one may connect the mantric units VAM with fettering or immobilization (*bandhana* or *stambhana*, chain), and HOḤ with ‘penetration’ or ‘possession’ (*āveśa*, bell). The latter may be regarded as a violent act, as penetration implies ‘stabbing’ (with bell, perhaps figuratively indicating a ‘mantric penetration’ via the medium of sound).⁵⁸

53. This is given in the *devatāyoga* section of Kuladatta’s *Kriyāsaṅgraha* (ed. Inui, Part 2): *om ṭakki hūm jaḥ / iti paṭhan trir vajram ullālayet / om ṭakki jaḥ hūm vam hoḥ // hr̥dy utkarṣaṇam* (I thank Iain Sinclair for pointing out this reference in an email dated 30 August 2014).

54. This reading is reconstituted by Griffiths on the basis of Damais’ transcription ṬAKI HŪM JAḤ JAḤ HŪM VAHO (2x); the original artefact is regrettably no longer available, and the context and function of the inscription remain obscure. Griffiths (2014a: 179) traces this sequence to a virtually identical one in a section on the consecration of the Tantric master in the *Kriyāsaṅgrahapañjikā* (6.2.9), namely OM ṬAKKI JAḤ HŪM VAM HOḤ.

55. What Sundberg (2003: 173) calls ‘the *hr̥daya* of *aṅkuśa* used in the text as both the elephant-goad means of summoning the gods to Sumeru’ is actually (OM) ṬAKKI JAḤ and not HŪM ṬAKKI JAḤ. His claim that this is also the personal *hr̥daya* or quintessence of Vajrapāṇi is incorrect, for in the *STTS* and related Buddhist literature the personal mantra of Vajrapāṇi—and of his alter-egos Vajrasattva, Vajradhara, Vajrahūmkāra, and Trailokyavijaya—is HŪM (see Linrothe 1999: 156). One may also argue that the syllable JAḤ alone is the element that effects summoning.

56. *Mantramahodadhi* 25.26f links the snare-seal (*pāśa-mudrā*) with *vaśīkaraṇa* (Goudriaan 1978: 289).

57. See, e.g., *Guhyasamāja* 14.27–30, where *ākaraṣaṇa* is carried out by means of both *vajrāṅkuśa* and *vajrapāśa*; see Nihom 1995: 525 on the identification of *ākaraṣaṇa* and *vaśīkaraṇa* in Esoteric Buddhist manuals. An illuminating discussion on the relationship between the attributes (and especially the hook and snare) of Esoteric Buddhist deities and the magical acts of *ākaraṣaṇa* and *vaśīkaraṇa* may be found in Goudriaan 1978: 316–17.

58. Perhaps because according to Sanskritic ontology sound pervades (i.e., ‘penetrates’) space (*ākāśa*)—compare the association of PHAṬ with *ākāśa* in the *Gaṇapatitattva* and *mahākāśa* in the *Pañcakāṇḍa*. Also note that the word *kīlayet* (‘he should pierce’ [with a *kīla*/*kīlaya*]) appears after the sequence *vajrāṅkuśādibhir ākṛṣya praveśya baddhvā vaśīkṛtya* in *Sarvavajrodaya* 55. The

(5) The invocation of these mantra-deities during the preliminary stage of the practice for the purpose of removing obstacles may correspond to the invocation of Gaṇapati as gate-guardian and remover of obstacles at the beginning of any undertaking; this trans-sectarian aspect mirrors the use of the opening formula *ṬAKI HŪM JAḤ* in the three short Old Javanese inscriptions in a manner that is co-functional with the use of the formula *oṃ avighnam astu [gaṇapataye namaḥ]* in inscriptions and manuscripts. Thus, the aim seems to have been apotropaic, i.e. to exorcise the potentially dangerous beings and transform them into benign guardians of the gates or points of the compass.⁵⁹ This process is symbolically enacted through the summoning, drawing, overpowering, and reviving of the deity, who is thereby transformed. At the same time, it cannot be excluded that the formula presupposes an element of anti-Śaiva polemic, alluding to the taming, conversion, and transformation of Gaṇapati into an auspicious Buddhist deity.

(6) The mention of ‘the refuge given by the Sun’ (*ādityasya parāyaṇam*) in *śloka* 4 of the *Pañcakāṇḍa*—which does not explicitly refer to the deity it is devoted to—in association with purification and destruction of disease and evil could be a reference to Amṛtakunḍali(n), a Buddhist *vighnāntaka* deity not unrelated to Vināyaka-Gaṇapati,

STTS makes clear that Mahādeva, having been rendered powerless and lying prostrate under the feet of Vajrapāṇi, literally becomes possessed as a result of the mantra *OM VAJRĀVIŚA HANAYA TRAṂ TRAṬ* uttered by the latter. The ‘suffering of Mahādeva’s possession’ only ceases after Vajrapāṇi intones the essential phrase of loving kindness of all the Buddhas: *OM BUDDHA MAITRĪ VAJRA RAKṢA HAṂ* (Davidson 1995c: 555).

59. For a representative example of apotropaic and protective use of the *ṭakkirāja*-mantra in a Sanskrit source, see *Vajrasattvanīṣpādāna* of pseudo-Candrakīrti (ed. Luo and Tomabechi 2009), 2.4.4, where a protective fence (*prākāra*) and canopy (*vajrapaṇjara*) is meditatively visualized: *tataṣ ṭakkirājamantreṇa lohajalāgnivāyuprākāra-catuṣṭayam yathākramam bāhyato vicintayet / tatrayam mantrah—ṭakki hūm jaḥ*; similarly, in the *Vajrasāṅghara/Vajrasāṅghara*, the mantra *ṬAKKI JA* is used to clean out *kleśas* (Taidō Kitamura 2012: 341, sec. 597), while in the *Trailokyavijayamahākālparāja*, *ṬAKKI HŪM JA* is used as a *kavacamantra* (Taidō Kitamura 2014: 34). I thank Iain Sinclair for these references.

who also resides, as the latter, in the northern sector of the *maṇḍala*.⁶⁰ In connection with point (5) above, I wonder whether the use of the mantra *JAḤ TAḤ KIḤ HŪM PHAṬ* in the *Gaṇapatitattva* and the Old Javanese inscriptions reflects an attempt to ‘bridge’ the Buddhist Amṛtakunḍalin and the Śaiva Gaṇapati, which would amount to a Śaiva appropriation of a largely co-functional Buddhist apotropaic deity. Given that in the *Amṛtakunḍalivināyakabandhadhārāṇī* (cf. Giebel 2010: 191) Amṛtakunḍalin is described as ‘having put an end to the life of Mahāgaṇapati’ (*mahāgaṇapatijīvitāntakarāya*), implying a fundamental enmity between the two *vināyaka/vighnāntaka* deities, this appropriation would carry an element of anti-Buddhist polemic.

...AND ON TAMING ELEPHANTS

The mantric unit *JAḤ* is well represented in Buddhist Tantras as the mantric expedient used to adduct or invoke the victim or deity in the preliminary part

60. Indeed the *Shibahui zhigui* (Giebel 1995: 143) places the Sun (*sūrya*) among the apotropaic, originally Hindu deities of Maheśvara’s retinue (which includes Gaṇapati-Vināyaka), who are confined to the outer space of the *maṇḍala*; the *STTS* instead of Sūrya has Amṛtakunḍalin, ‘for which the Tibetan sDe-dge and sNar-thang editions have “Nyi-Ma”, viz. Sūrya/Āditya, while Ānandagarbha also identifies Amṛtakunḍali with Sūrya/Āditya’ (ibid.: 145, n. 62). Griffiths (2014c) has detected a variant of the mantra of Amṛtakundalin, which is known from various ritual manuals in Sanskrit, in a prob. 11th- to 13th-century stone inscription from Muara Takus in Sumatra; what might be another instance of a mantra related to Amṛtakunḍalin is that of the lead-bronze foil unearthed near Borobudur (cf. Griffiths 2014b), which shares the invocation *namo ratnatrayāya / namaḥś caṇḍavajrapāṇaye / mahāyakaśasenāpataye* (with slight variants) with the opening part of the Amṛtakunḍalin mantra found in *T* 953.302c12–13, 303a3–5 (cf. Sinclair, this volume), the *Amṛtakunḍalivināyakabandhadhārāṇī* (cf. Giebel 2010: 190, and 192 for a discussion of parallels in the *Susiddhikarasūtra* etc.).

On the other hand, the connection between *Tāra-Sūrya (Sgro ma nyi ma) or *Tāraka-Sūrya (Sgrol ba nyi ma) and Ṭakkirāja discussed by Dalton (2011: 239, n. 43) may be worth exploring. Tāraka features in a Śaiva myth as a demon oppressing Hindu gods, who is defeated by Śiva. Note also that on his *vāhana* (the rat), ‘Gaṇapati symbolized a sun god covering the animal, which in ancient mythology is a symbol of the night’ (see Michael 1983: 95–96).

of the ritual or visualization.⁶¹ Being called ‘hook’ or ‘elephant-goat’ (*aṅkuśa*), it bears a strong association with elephants in the Indic *imaginaire*. The reason why JAḤ represents a hook or elephant-goat is obvious: in North and Eastern Indian scripts, such as Devanāgarī and Siddhamātrkā, this grapheme closely resembles such instruments (𑖦 D.; 𑖦 and 𑖦 S.).⁶² Furthermore, elephants represent the preferred victims of rituals of subjugation—especially in Buddhist texts; as noted by Goudriaan (1978: 332), ‘when there is a question of animals to be tamed and brought under power, the elephant will be the most impressive object on which a performer’s abilities can manifest themselves’.

A version of the ‘taming of Maheśvara’ myth featuring a demonic form of Gaṇapati is found in the 14th-century Old Javanese Buddhist *kakavin Sutasoma*. There Prince Sutasoma, a manifestation of the Bodhisattva Vairocana, ‘tames’ (i.e., converts to Buddhism) a *nāga*, a tigress, and the elephant-headed giant Gajavaktra—all explicitly portrayed as followers of the demonic form of Śiva known as Mahākāla, the counterpart of the Maheśvara of the Trailokyavijaya cycle. The text climaxes in the final confrontation between Sutasoma and Mahākāla, which also results in the taming and conversion of the latter to Buddhism.

Insofar that it portrays the transformation of violent, unrestrained, and subversive demonic char-

acters—Mahākāla and his retinue—into ‘demon devotees’ of the Buddha, the narrative cycle of the *Sutasoma* recalls that of the ‘taming of Maheśvara/Rudra’ in the Trailokyavijaya cycle. Canto 32–33 of the *Sutasoma* is devoted to the conversion of the degraded demonic form of Gaṇapati (Gajavaktra, Gajendramukha)⁶³ from (Śaiva) demon to (Buddhist) Lord of demons, and hence protector of the outer space of the *maṇḍala*. If O’Brien’s (2008) view that the *Sutasoma* narrative is a representation of a *maṇḍala* is correct, then the Gajavaktra episode, which occurs at an early stage of Sutasoma’s journey, would (fittingly) represent its outer section.⁶⁴ Amoghavajra’s *Shibahui zhigui* (‘Indications of the Goals of the Eighteen Assemblies’), describing the section of the *Vajrasekharasūtra* on the Trailokyavijayamaṇḍala (which, being in the section of the First Assembly, corresponds to the *STTS*), mentions twenty Protectors residing in the outer space of the *maṇḍala*, who were converted by Vajrapāṇi, like their ‘head’ Maheśvara (Snodgrass 1988: 559–63, 637).⁶⁵ From this evidence one may infer that a cycle on the conversion of Gaṇapati—intended as a member of Maheśvara/

61. See, e.g., *GST* p. 55, 1f (Goudriaan 1978: 297), *Hevajratantra* Ch. 4 (ibid.: 298); *Sādhnamālā* no. 59 (ibid.: 303). For occurrences of variants of the mantra ‘Aṅkuśa’ in Amoghapāśa-related ritual texts in the Taishō canon, see Shinohara 2014: 135.

62. These associations are by no means uncommon in the Sanskrit tradition. Jayabhadra, the 9th-century Sinhalese *vajrācārya* of Vikramaśīla, in his commentary to the *Cakrasaṃvaratantra* homologizes the letters *ra* and *ha* of the Sanskrit syllabary (as written in northeastern India in that period) with the male and female genitals by virtue of their similarity in shape (Gray 2005: 440); in a similar fashion, the grapheme *e* (as written in Śāradā, as well as Devanāgarī script) was called *trikoṇa* (‘triangle’) and associated with the female organ by non-dual Śaiva authors Abhinavagupta and Jayaratha (Padoux 1990: 263–65). An association between *ākaraṣaṇa* and a ‘hook’ may be found in the *Ṣaṭkarmadīpikā* (p. 188 st. 52), which declares that the victim of *ākaraṣaṇa* should be thought of as being ‘caught and dragged along like a fish by a fish hook’ (Goudriaan 1978: 291).

63. Gajavaktra is declared to be a grossly evil being that is different from the god Gaṇarāja, son of Śiva, who is depicted in positive terms as the victor over the Great Lord of Demons. Gajavaktra belongs to a set of eight ‘pre-conversion’ *vināyaka*s in some Chinese Buddhist texts; this set probably derives from an earlier Purāṇic set (cf. *Agni-purāṇa* III.3.4 and *Garuḍapurāṇa* I.129.26 [as Hastimukha], referred to in Sinclair, this volume, p. 47, n. 88). As reported by Iain Sinclair (email dated 4 April 2014), Gajavaktra is a synonym of Gaṇeśa in some Newāri Buddhist works.

64. O’Brien (ibid.: 179) places the episode in the northern sector, which is in agreement with the description of a form of Vināyaka in the northern sector of the *maṇḍala* by Amoghavajra. As the *bodhyagrī-mudrā* used by Sutasoma to overcome Gajavaktra (see below, n. 67) is usually associated with Mahāvairocana and the *vajra*, O’Brien sees a contradiction between this and the fact that the Jinabuddha of the northern quadrant is Amoghasiddhi, which is normally associated with the *dhyāna-mudrā*. However, the reference to Mahāvairocana’s *bodhyagrī-mudrā* would seem to be appropriate in the Gajavaktra episode—cf. above, n. 51 on Vairocana’s connection with the 𑖦𑖦𑖦𑖦𑖦𑖦 JAḤ mantra, *ākaraṣaṇa*, and the conversion of Maheśvara in the *STTS*.

65. Snodgrass uses the Japanese form, *Jūhachieshiki* (‘Synopsis of the Eighteen Assemblies’), i.e. the *Kongōchōkyō-yuga-jūhatte-shiki* (*T* 869); an annotated translation is provided by Giebel (1995: see esp. 142–46, and 150–51, n. 92).

Mahākālā's retinue—must have existed by the time of Amoghavajra, and that the Gajavaktra episode of the Old Javanese *Sutasoma* might have been based on such a cycle.⁶⁶

The subjugation of Gajavaktra in the *Sutasoma* is effected through a mantric thunderbolt-weapon (*bodhyagrī-mudrā*) generated from the 'knowledge that is a means of destroying violence'.⁶⁷ This

66. The *STTS* (ed. Horiuchi, vol. 1, p. 520), in a section dealing with the outer space of the *maṇḍala*, details a series of mantras and invocations to Vajrapāṇi for the harming and warding off of Gaṇapati, Mahāgaṇapati, and Vināyaka; in section 1245 the process involves the six acts of *ākaraṇa*, *praveśa*, *āveśa*, *bandhana*, *vaśikaraṇa*, and *māraṇa* (*om vajramālagaṇapate mālayākaraṇaya praveśayāveśaya bandhaya vaśikuru māraya hum phat*). It would be worthwhile to investigate the *sādhana*-text pertaining to Krodhagaṇapati (Tibetan Canon no. 4994) attributed to Atiśa's guru from Suvarṇadvīpa (see Schoterman, this volume), as well as Chinese Tantric Buddhist materials, such as those described by Duquenne (1988) and Lancaster (1991), which 'present a wealth of references to Vināyaka along with the spells, dhāraṇī, mudra, and other rituals that could keep this malevolent spirit under control' (ibid.: 279). As related by Lancaster (ibid.: 282), a text (*T* 849) devoted, like the *Sutasoma*, to the Buddha Vairocana, informs us that the Vināyakas and all the evil *yakṣas* will be seized with fear and run away when they hear the spell being recited. Duquenne (1988: 323) mentions a Japanese *Daijizaiten-hōsoku-giki* (*Maheśvara-vidhi-kalpa?*), which is in fact a slightly enlarged version of the *Shijuhō-kyō* (i.e., *Shizhoufa jing*, *T* 1267) attributed to Bodhiruci, which is dedicated to Vināyaka rituals and spells. The former text points to a Śaiva (or perhaps Trailokyavijaya cycle-related) context in its title.

67. *Sutasoma* hits Gajavaktra in the chest, and the demon is 'rendered completely powerless; exhausted, he lay prostrate, unable to budge the heavy thunderbolt-weapon weighing down on him' (O'Brien 2008: 45). Gajavaktra is thus 'exorcised' and the Gaṇa who had taken hold of him departs from the elephant-faced being, who regains control of his passions. The *bodhyagrī-mudrā* is characterized in Canto 33.9c as *jñānāveśa minuṣṭi*, perhaps 'penetration by Gnosis embodied in a fist'. This characterization calls to mind the *mudrā* (and weapon) of the central divinity of the *STTS* (i.e., either Vajrasattva or Vairocana), *jñānamuṣṭi-mudrā* 'fist of knowledge' (Lokesh Chandra 1987: 46), which is indeed a synonym of *bodhyagrī-mudrā* (or *bodhāgrī mudra*, as described in *STTS*, ed. Horiuchi vol. 1, p. 185, section 285; *Sarvavajrodāya*, suppl., ed. Takahashi 1990: 78): cf. de Mallman (1986: 33, 34, 62, 130, 242, 331, 386, 392, 393), B.T. Bhattacharya (1949: 66–68), and Bautze-Picron (2010a: 59–60). Snodgrass (1988: 316–17) describes a

knowledge is, appropriately enough, suggested to *Sutasoma* by the god Indra (Canto 31.10), the arch-enemy—and tamer—of elephants, who rides the white Airāvata elephant and bears a *vajra*, an elephant-goad, and a net as his attributes. The mention of Indra is significant: as argued by Bosch (1947), Vajrapāṇi (and later, Vajrasattva) represents a Buddhist development of the Brahmanical god Indra; the former retains the attributes of the latter, and his hostility to (or mastership over) elephants; both reside in the eastern point of the compass.⁶⁸ As we have seen, (a fierce form of) Vajrapāṇi is the main Bodhisattva in the Trailokyavijaya cycle.

That this cycle was known in Central Java around the 9th century may be inferred, apart from the mantra inscribed on the Ratu Boko gold foil, from a *dhāraṇī* inscribed on a lead-bronze foil unearthed near Borobudur, which could be dated to between the 8th and early 10th century

Vajramuṣṭi Bodhisattva (himself representing Mahāvairocana's inner realization), whose *vajramuṣṭi-mudrā* 'strikes and destroys doubt, karma and other hindrances'. One may connect the *bodhyagrī-mudrā* and Vajrahūmkāra, both of which are associated with penetration (*āveśa*). A *vajrahūmkāra-mudrā* associated with the *krodha*-deities Saṃvara and Hevajra is described by Linrothe (1999: 283, 286–87, 290, 298, 334); this is also the *mudrā* that the practitioner should assume (in meditation) in *Sarvavajrodāya* 56. Scriptural evidence linking the *vajrahūmkāra-mudrā* to the *vajramuṣṭi* is found in the *Sarvadurgatipariśodhana* (ed. Skorupski p. 136, trans. p. 13): 'The inner enclosure is made by means of *Vajrahūmkāra*, saying: HUM. He binds the *vajra*-fists [*vajramuṣṭidvaya*] and forms a *vajra* with his arms; the little fingers he makes into hooks [*aṅkuśa*] and raises the forefingers into a point known as Trilokyavijaya (Victor over the Threefold World). This is the gesture of *Vajrahūmkāra*'.

68. In fact, an association between Indra and Gaṇapati is already found in the early Vedic corpus (see Michael 1983: 103–6). We also find an association between HŪM, wind, Rudra and Vajrapāṇi/Vajrasattva/Indra: all these deities embody, to varying degrees, the terrible aspect of such fierce atmospheric phenomena as storm and thunder. In the Sanskrit-Old Javanese Buddhist manual *San Hyan Kamahāyānikan*, Vajrasattva is placed in the east, associated with the mantra HŪM, and attributed an elephant as vehicle (the last association is found in ms. B only; see Damais 1969: 89). In *Gaṇapatitattva* 59–60, the mantra HŪM is linked to the element wind (the same is found in a Chinese text by Śubhākarasīrīha: see Damais 1969: 86), and associated with the visualization of Rudra.

(Kandahjaya 2009; Lokesh Chandra 2013; Griffiths 2014a, whose reconstituted text and translation I am quoting here). In the *Mahāraudranāmaḥṛdaya*, a fierce form of Vajrapāṇi (Caṇḍavajrapāṇi as Mahāyākṣasenāpati)—and his ‘greatly ferocious mantra’—is invoked to cause ‘the destruction of all of (Śiva’s) *bhūtas* and Gaṇas, that causes terror, fear and conflict, that causes the success of all rituals!’ (*sarvvabhūtagaṇavināśakaram raudrākāram trāsabhayavivādakaram sarvvakarmmasiddhikaram*). This mantra is declared to destroy all enemies (*sarvaśatru*), obstacles (*sarvavighna*), diseases (*sarvavyādhi*), illnesses (*sarvaroga*), and all Vināyakas (*sarvavināyaka*). The left foot of Vajrapāṇi is placed on the pair of breasts of Pārvatī.⁶⁹ The inscription closes with a second text, a mantra composed in standard Sanskrit, which also opens with the same invocation to Caṇḍavajrapāṇi, and ends with the sequence ṬAKI HŪM JAḤ JAḤ HŪM KIṬA HŪM ṬAKI DHUṀ KIṬA DHUṀ IYA IJA I_Ḥ SVĀHĀ—a variant of the ‘Ratu Boko mantra’. As noted by Griffiths, it seems that these two texts were not originally composed together, yet they clearly display a commonality of context and function.⁷⁰

It is significant that besides the destruction of enemies (*sarvaśatru*) and obstacles (*sarvavighna*), the *mahāraudranāmaḥṛdaya* explicitly mentions the destruction of all Vināyakas, namely the demonic forms of the elephant-headed god Gaṇapati. As we have seen above, the mantra ṬAKKI JAḤ HŪM represents the (Elephant-)goat hostile to

Gaṇapati, and is also connected with purification and removal of obstacles. Either of these facts, or perhaps both, could explain the occurrence of the sequence OM ṬAKI JAḤ HŪM as a calque of OM AVIGHNAM ASTU (OM GAṆAPATAYE NAMAḤ) in Old Javanese inscriptions and manuscripts. The same concern with the removal of obstacles, purification, and subjugation/destruction of enemies is found in the *Pañcakāṇḍa*; even more so, it features in the closing section of the *Gaṇapatitattva*, where a pot-pourri of mantras and visualization techniques with both harmful and protective purposes, and to grant (ritual) success and destroy obstacles, were compiled one after the other.⁷¹

Represented in Esoteric Buddhist texts and visual documents as a quintessentially Śaiva demonic deity being tamed (i.e., trampled upon) by *krodha-vighnāntaka* deities such as Acala, Vighnāntaka, and Heruka/Saṃvara,⁷² Gaṇapati was absorbed as a minor deity (*vināyaka*) with the

69. Compare the above-quoted passage of the *Sarvavajrodāya*, where the practitioner (embodying the deity Vajrahūmkāra) is invited to assume the *pratyālīḍha* stance and step on the effigy of the obstacle (*vighnaprakṛti*, the tamed Śaiva deity?) with his left foot. This image re-enacts the events described in the Trailokyavijaya myth, when ‘Maheśvara and his consort Umā were dragged nude and feet up before Vajrapāṇi, who stepped on Maheśvara with his left foot and on Umā’s breasts with his right’ (Sundberg 2003: 169). Griffiths (2014b) discusses the problem posed by the iconography transmitted by the *dhāraṇī* and the known sculptural corpus all over the Buddhist world, which shows representations of Trailokyavijaya/Vajrapāṇi with an opposite position of the feet (i.e., left foot on Śiva, right foot on Pārvatī).

70. As discovered by Kandahjaya (2009), the first text has a parallel in the *Navakampa*, a Sanskrit *stuti* recovered from Balinese manuscripts (see above, n. 12).

71. A series of goals that calls to mind those described in the *Mahāraudranāmaḥṛdaya* and the closing section of the *Gaṇapatitattva* is listed in connection with the *mahāhṛdayadhāraṇī* bestowed by the ferocious goddess Vidyutkarālī to Sutasoma at the beginning of his journey (*Sutasoma* 12.1), namely (the destruction of) hindrances (*vighna*), impurity (*mala*), all enemies (*sarvaśatru*), diseases (*roga*) and misfortunes (*upadrava*), as well as the highest supernatural prowess (*siddhyottama*).

72. A useful treatment of the historical development of the apotropaic Krodha-Vighnāntaka deities vis-à-vis the Dharmapāla and Guardian deities (*dikpāla*) is offered by Linrothe (1999: 19–28). Having noted that ‘the essential metaphor behind the *krodha-vighnāntaka* is that of the *dompteur-dompté* relationship’, Linrothe (1999: 214) draws attention to the pair Acala and Vighnāntaka, ‘who are both depicted dominating “obstruction” itself, in the form of Gaṇeśa or Vināyaka’. As for Heruka Saṃvara, Linrothe (ibid.: 277) notes that this deity ‘appears just as Trailokyavijaya disappears, and he has so much in common with Trailokyavijaya that Saṃvara may be considered the Phase Three reincarnation of Trailokyavijaya’. A standard element of the iconography of Saṃvara is the elephant skin (representing illusion, which is destroyed by Saṃvara); a Saṃvara dancing on the head of an elephant (prob. 11th or 12th century) is depicted in the Khmer sanctuary of Phimai in modern Thailand (see Conti 2014: 388). Another Phase Three Tantric Buddhist example of subjugation of Gaṇeśa/Vināyaka is the representation of the latter as prostrated at the bottom of stelae depicting the healing goddess Parṇaśavarī/Parṇaśabari, an emanation of Amoghasiddhi (Verardi 2011: 373).

function of protecting, overcoming obstacles, and guarding boundaries. In fact Gaṇapati/Vināyaka occupies an ambivalent position in both the Buddhist and Śaiva pantheons:

As one whose demon ancestry is manifest ... Gaṇeśa is superbly qualified to be lord over Śiva's *gaṇas*, themselves a generally unruly bunch. As one of the demons brought over into the family of the great lord Śiva, Gaṇeśa mediates between the oppositional forces of the divine and the demonic. He understands the demons; he knows their ways and does not fear their powers. Like his father [Śiva] ... Gaṇeśa stands both outside and inside the divine worlds as he dwells at the threshold.... He both places and removes obstacles and facilitates and thwarts undertakings. (Courtright 1985: 136)

[Vināyaka] is at once the creator and remover of hindrances. He is maleficent unless controlled, and many Buddhist rituals commence with formulae to prevent Vināyaka from obstructing the efficacious performance of the ritual and to rechannel his energies in guarding the mandala from disrupting influences. The dual character of Vināyaka is like that of an elephant, powerfully destructive and terrifying when uncontrolled, but obediently using his immense strength to serve those who nurture and control him. (Snodgrass 1988: 642)

Gaṇapati's ambiguous status secured him a liminal position at the boundary between the Śaiva-Buddhist divide, resulting in a trans-sectarian cult where the god maintained a co-functional role in both religions.

A series of Buddhist and Śaiva embodiments of Gaṇapati intended as *vighnāntakṛt*, i.e. destroyers of obstacles, are attested in texts and visual documents as wrathful deities that display demonic features, and whose main function was to dispel demons and remove hindrances. Linrothe (1999: 25) reminds us that 'the primary activity of the *krodha-vighnāntaka* deities ... is not merely to protect sacred territory or the aspirant, but to destroy obstacles, both outer and inner, mundane and transcendental'. Forms of Vināyaka appear in the list of twenty outer Guardian or Protector gods of each of the four gates of the Perfected Body

maṇḍala in Sino-Japanese Tantric Buddhist texts; a separate Vināyaka is also placed in the northern sector.⁷³

As a 'tamed demon' and at the same time a tamer of demons, creator of obstacles (*vināyaka*) and destroyer of obstacles (*vighnāntakṛt*), Vināyaka/Gaṇapati represents the outcome of the Buddhist (and Śaiva) narrative of transformation from *bhūta* to *bhūtarāja*, or from criminal to protector of the religion. According to Mayer (1998: 274) this narrative, most effectively portrayed in the Trailokya-vijaya cycle, repeats

a widespread pattern found in Indian religions in which deities transform hostile demons into their loyal devotees (often giving them the specific function of guardian or protector) through the medium of first slaying them, and then bringing them back to life.

(INTER-)RELIGIOUS IMPLICATIONS OF THE RATU BOKO YANTRA

The materials presented above share a constellation of common themes in the domain of mantric technology, which is mainly used to avert illnesses, acquire mundane and supramundane goals, influence other people, and purify or 'convert' hostile beings. Having advanced the hypothesis that the Ratu Boko gold foil and its engraved mantra constitute a *yantra* of Tantric magic, and having elaborated on the connections between the mantra and Gaṇapati, I now proceed to discuss its implications for the contemporary Central Javanese religious and socio-political situation.

Continuing the train of thought started by Sundberg and Jordaan and Colless, a fruitful line of enquiry seems to be the analysis of the *yantra*, and the mantra ṬAKI JAḤ HŪM in general, in the context of the Bauddha-Śaiva polemic. An evident anti-Śaiva stance is reflected in the use of the ṬAKI JAḤ HŪM mantra in the context of the taming of Maheśvara by Vajrapāṇi in the Trailokyavijaya cycle narrated in the *STTS* and related Buddhist sources in Sanskrit, Tibetan, and Chinese, as well

73. See, e.g., Śākyamitra's commentary to the *Vajraśekhara-sūtra* and Amoghavajra's *Shibahui zhigui* (Japanese *Jūhachieshiki*), discussed in Snodgrass 1988: 588–89, 640–42.

as, more generally, in the context of annihilation of obstacles by *krodha-vighnāntaka* deities. A similar anti-Śaiva attitude is found in some documents from premodern Java, namely the Borobudur *dhāraṇī* devoted to Caṇḍavajrapāṇi, which destroys all Vināyakas, and the *Sutasoma kakavin*, which narrates a version of the taming of Śiva/Mahākāla that also features the taming of his retinue (Gajavakra, a *nāga*, and a tigress). On the other hand, the association of the mantra with Gaṇapati, as witnessed by its occurrence as the incipit of two Old Javanese inscriptions recovered from Śaiva sites (where OM ṬAKKIJAḤ represents a calque of *om avighnam astu [gaṇapataye namaḥ]*), and in the closing section of the (Śaiva) *Gaṇapatitattva*, suggests that dynamics of trans-sectarian appropriation were at play from the second half of the 9th century in Central Java. The homologization of the five units of the mantra JAḤ ṬAḤ KIḤ HŪM PHAṬ, already attested as such in the (Buddhist) *Pañcakāṇḍa*, with a pentad of manifestations of Śiva may constitute a Śaiva ‘signature’ implying the ‘rebranding’ of what was perceived as an eminently Buddhist mantra.⁷⁴

One may wonder whether the Śaiva appropriation of a Buddhist mantra implied a statement of superiority of the former religion over the latter, and whether this appropriation represented a (subtle, or implied) Śaiva ‘retaliation’ towards what was felt to be a mantra hostile to Śaivism in general, and Gaṇapati in particular, because of the connections with the acts of *ākaraṣaṇa* and *vaśikaraṇa*, their instruments (elephant-goat and the snare), and the deity Vajrapāṇi in the Trailokyavijaya cycle.⁷⁵

74. I wonder whether the inversion of the element JAḤ in the mantric sequence given in both the *Pañcakāṇḍa* and the *Gaṇapatitattva*, i.e. its shift to before ṬAKI (OM ṬAKI JAḤ HŪM SVĀHĀ > JAḤ ṬAḤ KIḤ HŪM PHAṬ), may be seen as a sign of purposeful ‘rebranding’; however, this would be at odds with the fact that the *Pañcakāṇḍa* seems to be predominantly Buddhist, and indeed still not used by modern Balinese Śaiva priests.

75. Snellgrove (2004: 141–42, n. 50) argues that the element NIŚUMBHA in the spell OM NIŚUMBHA VAJRA HŪM PHAṬ uttered by Vajrapāṇi just before the spell OM ṬAKKI JAḤ in the *STTS* means ‘slaughter’, and ‘thus it may have come into use as a destructive spell with Śaivite associations’ (on the association of ṬAKKI with PHAṬ and *māraṇa*, cf. my n. 19 above); with respect to ṬAKKI JAḤ, he notes that

Mayer (1998: 274) seems to portray a less clear-cut situation when he says that the ‘taming of Maheśvara/Rudra narrative’

can be seen to document the process described by Levi-Strauss as ‘bricolage’, in which persisting cultural materials are re-worked to create new cultural reconstructions.⁷⁶

In fact, one may also suppose that dynamics of mantric and ritual technology might have been at play here: ritual, and especially magic, was a ‘grey zone’—or ‘penumbra’, as Orzech, Payne and Sørensen (2011: 12) put it—that favoured inclusion and eclecticism in view of the co-functionality of the practices from the point of view of practitioners, ritual specialists, and patrons alike. All the more so in Java where, as noted long ago by Stutterheim (1989 [1925]: 242), ‘the main point was always the mantras themselves, in short the magic practices. Śaivite or Buddhistic are here no more than [a] difference of system[s] of magic’.

Ṭakka seems to have been applied to certain aborigines, hence the meaning of “wild”. Ṭakkijjaḥ would thus mean “savage-born”. Ṭakkara is an epithet of Śiva’ (indeed, Ṭakkī in some Prakrit grammatical works is regarded as an unrefined dialect of Apabrahmśa, spoken by semi-educated people, and is sometimes associated with Drāviḍi: see Nitti-Dolci 1938: 101, 127–29). On the other hand, Dalton (2011: 239, n. 43) associates Ṭakki with the root *tāraka* and the name of the demon Tāraka, which features in a Śaiva cycle (cf. above, n. 60). Dalton argues that Tāraka may be ‘a pseudonym for Takkirāja or a case of creative etymology on the part of Indians or Tibetans (or both)’, and draws attention to the toponym Ṭakki in northern Punjab, which according to Tucci was the place of origin of a ‘local deity’ called Ṭakkirāja. Given the lack of evidence in Śaiva literature, it would be speculative to maintain that the ṬAKKI JAḤ mantra was originally Śaiva, and only later borrowed—and preserved—by the Buddhists; however, given the evidence of widespread borrowing of originally Śaiva materials in Buddhist texts documented by Sanderson (2009: 124–240), this possibility must be kept in mind.

76. Mayer (1998: 274) also sees the Trailokyavijaya cycle as constituting ‘the charter myth (more or less in a Malinowskian sense) of the Vajrayāna in its specifically *kāpālīka* forms, in other words as the myth by which the Buddhists explained and justified to themselves and to the world their co-option of so much of the religion of their Śaiva rivals’. This implies that the ‘anti-Śaiva’ sentiment could have been triggered by the realization that Śaiva elements indeed permeated Tantric Buddhism.

On account of the association between the mantra on the Ratu Boko artefact and the taming of Maheśvara by Vajrapāṇi, Sundberg (2003: 182–83) argued that

implicit in the choice of mantra used by Panarabwan is a story of some degree of tension between the Buddhist yoga tantrists and the Śaivites whose god was mythically subdued, murdered, resurrected, and converted.... In adopting his Buddhism, and more importantly in scribing his name to a plaque of anti-Śaivite character, Panarabwan seemingly repudiated in strong terms the religion of his probable ancestor Sañjaya.

While I agree with Sundberg's interpretation of the mantra as fundamentally anti-Śaiva in nature and purpose, I do not share his opinion that the *yantra* would have been crafted by Panaraban himself.⁷⁷ In a somewhat contradictory manner (see Jordaan and Colless 2004: 62), Sundberg (2003: 179; 2006: 112, n. 25) suggests that the mantra might have had a benedictory nature on account of its being enclosed within the mantric units OM ... SVĀHĀ, and its having been recovered beneath the west rather than east gate of the Ratu Boko complex—the east being the direction of the first summoning (*ākarṣaṇa*) rite according to the *STTS*. The former argument can be easily dispelled by noting, as I have done above, that SVĀHĀ does not

necessarily entail a benedictory nuance—in fact, it is connected with *ākarṣaṇa* and *vaśīkaraṇa* in some Tantric texts on *yantras* (cf. above, p. 332). Similarly, to counter the latter argument I may point out that the west is connected with snaring, and deities bearing the snare (*pāśa*) as attribute in both Buddhist and Śaiva sources;⁷⁸ the *pāśa* is in turn connected with *vaśīkaraṇa*, and therefore does not necessarily imply an 'inversion' resulting in a beneficent rather than maleficent procedure.

Given that the mantra ṬAKKI HŪM JAḤ was used in the context of the 'mantric battle' narrated in the various myths of the subjugation of Maheśvara, it is logical to assume that it was used as a means to subjugate or 'spellbind' the ruling king. The idea that the artefact would represent the re-enactment of a similar battle in the real world, which implies conversion of a king from Śaivism to Buddhism, was advanced by Jordaan and Colless (2004: 61). They argued that, there being no evidence that the mantra was composed at Panaraban's instigation, the engraving of the personal *raka* title of Panaraban within the inflated *ī* of ṬAKĪ conveyed 'the idea of his being caught and tied up with ropes and rendered powerless' (p. 62), and its main intention 'could have been the mantrical subjugation and conversion of Panaraban' from Śaivism to Buddhism (ibid.: 61). Even the Javanese geographical setting, i.e. the Ratu Boko hillock, would correspond to Mount Sumeru, when the Trailokyavijaya story is set. To Jordaan and Colless (ibid.: 61–62), the artefact could have been crafted by the monks of the Buddhist establishments (maybe the Abhayagiri-vihāra?) on the Ratu Boko hillock, who 'by infixing Panarabwan's name into the same mantra that was used to subjugate Śiva in the myth of Trailokyavijaya ... sought to establish a similar coercive hold over Panarabwan'. While we know virtually nothing about the historical figure of Panaraban and the events that occurred during his reign, in the *Carita Parahyaṇan* we find a reference to a dialogue between this king and his (alleged) father Rahyañ Sañjaya, who addresses him as follows: 'O child, change (from) my religion, because it scares

77. Sundberg (2003: 177) speculates that Panaraban 'by inscribing his name within the dot of the "i", has infixing his name as a vital component of the sacred mantra. In this way, he is operating within the circumference of the mystic vowel itself, and clearly intends to link himself to the mantra or the cosmic being it points to, albeit in a manner we cannot understand'; see also Sundberg 2006: 112, n. 25: 'What is more, the essence of the conceptual innovation which defined the *yoga* stage of the tantras was the yogic identification of the practitioner with the deity—it is entirely expected within this system that Panarabwan actively seek the binding of his preferred deity to himself'. The latter argument is a valid one, as we have seen that some of the usages of the mantra ṬAKI HŪM JAḤ (VAṢ HOḤ) involved an element of (self-)visualization as the *krodha* deity destroying or taming the opponents; however, this element of visualization cannot be applied to the Ratu Boko artefact, which evidently represents a *yantra*, and which only attests the name(s) of the victim(s) without mentioning any deity. In fact, Tantric manuals often prescribe visualization by the attacker of the *victim* of the spell.

78. The association of the western side of Buddhist *maṇḍalas* with the fetter is noted by Sundberg too (2003: 179).

people' (*hayva dek nurutan agama aiñ, kena aiñ mratakutna urañ ryea*). This intriguing detail leads us to speculate that the Old Sundanese text might have preserved a vague memory of a dramatic and far-reaching religious conversion, or even of a religious conflict, linked to this king and his reign, which predates the *Carita Parahyañan* by perhaps six or seven centuries.⁷⁹

Examples of (Buddhist) narratives being used as a commentary on real-world scenarios of religious (i.e., Śaiva-Buddha) frictions abound in the Sanskrit and Tibetan traditions. For instance, Mayer (1998: 273) has described Esoteric Buddhist discourses on the 'all-powerful malignance of Śiva and his entourage, specifically in their more radically transgressive or *kāpālika* tantric forms', which were criticized for seducing many devotees into demonic religious practices, thereby posing a threat to the Buddhist religion. To Mayer (*ibid.*: 274), the 'taming of Maheśvara/Rudra narrative' may be seen as 'giving a Buddhist commentary (in the Geertzian sense) upon Śaiva-Buddhist relations'. According to Dalton (2011: 36),

the Rudra-taming myth reflects these burgeoning sectarian rivalries ... by destroying Śiva and binding all the Brahmanical gods into service, the buddhas were not only providing a model for subsequent ritual of demon-taming; they were also demonstrating Buddhism's superiority over Brahmanism, and Śaivism in particular.

Davidson (2002: 197), when discussing the *vajra*, i.e. the symbol of Vajrayāna par excellence, introduces an element of realpolitik, arguing that

the *vajra* represented the king's right to force—the metaphorical legal 'staff' (*dañḍa*), which legal literature claimed as the essence of kingship—and therefore the symbol of the Buddha's Law (Dharma). The enforcement of the law was left to Vajrapāṇi (Vajra in Hand), who ensures that the criminal elements (mythically represented by either Māra or [Śiva] Maheśvara

in the esoteric system) would not overwhelm the monasteries. The Maheśvaras of the world were stubborn, and Vajrapāṇi was represented as the 'best of those subduing the difficult to tame' (*durdāntadamakaḥ paraḥ*).

To Davidson, the worlds of feudal politics, unstable social realities and sectarian competition largely coincided during the 'Tantric turn' that dominated the early Mediaeval Indic world.

SOCIO-POLITICAL IMPLICATIONS OF THE RATU BOKO YANTRA

That the relationship between certain Buddhist and Śaiva factions may have been less than idyllic was suggested by Jordaan (1999b: 70), who did not rule out the possibility that 'Central Javanese society was riddled by social tensions in which religious affiliations came to play an ever important part'. On the other hand, Jordaan (1999b: 47–54, 2006: 6, 10) also argued against the often too simplistic view of relationships between Śaivism and Buddhism in early Central Java propounded by scholars, pointing out that the two religions may have peacefully cohabited and any anti-Buddhist sentiment may be attributable to political reasons, namely the conflict between the Sañjaya and the Śailendra lines of kings. What the archaeological remains—and, with an element of ambiguity, the literary sources—tell us is that by the middle of the 9th century Buddhism continues to coexist along with Śaivism, yet it ceases to be the 'state religion', and from that period onwards the architecture of Central Java becomes predominantly Hindu (i.e., Śaiva). This is witnessed, for instance, by the 'occupation' of the Ratu Boko promontory (formerly colonised by Buddhist foundations, such as the Abhayagirivihāra) by Śaiva religious foundations (Sundberg, this volume; Degroot 2006: 71), the proliferation of inscriptions of Śaiva character (some of which were associated with Vināyaka),⁸⁰ and the construction of the Loro Jonggrang temple in the

79. A discussion of the passage in question and, in general, of the *Carita Parahyañan* and other textual sources that may help us to reconstruct the socio-political and religious landscape of the early Mataram kingdom of Central Java may be found in Sundberg 2011.

80. The Pereng and Dawangsari inscriptions share a close association with the cult of Vināyaka, and were formerly placed in the vicinity of a colossal Gaṇeśa image on the Ratu Boko hillock, which is indeed referred to in the latter (Griffiths 2011: 137–39). Both inscriptions, and seemingly also the contemporary statue, are associated with the figure

Śaiva complex of Prambanan. This phase has been rightfully regarded as coinciding with the end of the Śailendra rule (or influence) in Java (Jordaan 1999b: 66–67; 2006: 6, n. 8).

Even if we leave aside the anti-Śaiva implications, we may still see in the Ratu Boko *yantra* an element of attraction and subjugation, i.e. a magical operation directed towards the person of Panaraban—perhaps by a political rival, with the complicity of Esoteric Buddhist monks. This scenario is supported by evidence drawn from manuals of Tantric magic for the drawing of *yantras* that I have presented above, which connect symbolic shapes such as square, *vajra* and circle—all present in the Ratu Boko artefact—to various harmful actions, i.e. subjugation, immobilization, or enmity.

Resorting to magical practices to fulfill aims of realpolitik is a cliché in many Śaiva and Bauddha Tantras, and even in Brahmanical Sanskrit normative texts, such as the *Arthaśāstra* and the *Manusmṛiti*; these manuals also invoke the use of infiltrated agents posing as *siddhas*, i.e. powerful wizards bearing the insignia of such antinomian Śaiva groups as the Kāpālikas (Davidson 2002: 174–75). Analogous ideas are found in the *Rāmāyaṇa kakavin*, the arguably contemporary Śivagrha inscription of AD 856, and narrative reliefs of Central Javanese temples. These documents allegorically allude to the deceitful activities of sham ascetics and sorcerers associated with covert political manoeuvring during the dynastic struggle that opposed Bālaputra of the Śailendra line and Rakai Pikatan in the middle of the 9th century, which seems to have had its final resolution precisely on the Ratu Boko hillock (see Acri 2010, 2011). Jakl (2013: 11–12), on the basis of his reading of the Old Javanese *Rāmāyaṇa* and other *kakavins*, has concluded that malicious 'black magic' practices of ritual destruction, aimed at securing victory in war, were conceptualized in premodern Java as a part of vicious practices of Tantric wizards of the *siddha* type, portrayed as 'demon-ascetics' (*vikū rākṣasa*); to him (ibid.), 'these practices of subjugation, immobilization and annihilation, censured as *aji śāstra wēgig* in *kakawin Rāmāyaṇa*

8,31, are to be best understood as acts of Tantric sorcery (*ṣaṭkarmāṇi*)'.⁸¹ Hunter (2007: 35–36) has discussed 13th-century East Javanese inscriptional evidence of practices, stemming from a Śaiva Tantric (*bhairavika*) antinomian milieu, aimed at granting King Kṛtanagara invulnerability and victory in battle; Santiko (1997: 217–18) discusses a statuary group consisting of images of Cāmuṇḍā, Bhairava and Gaṇeśa, which she connects with a *vaśīkaraṇa* ritual aimed at defeating Kṛtanagara's enemies. Similar, and contemporary, instances of royal-sponsored 'war magic' centred on such demonic Tantric deities as Mahākāla, Heruka, and Hevajra, are well documented among the Mongols, Tibetans, and Chinese.⁸²

Vaśīkaraṇa is mentioned in the long Old Malay 'Śrīvijayan' inscription of Telaga Batu (Sabokingkung, near Palembang in Sumatra) from the late 7th century. The text contains imprecations against the enemies of the state and the king; it mentions an oath of loyalty to the king taken by his entourage, which, if broken, will result in the culprits being killed by spells. In line 13, 'the curse is directed against the king's servants, should they be in contact with various sorts of people well-versed in the use of magical practices' (de Casparis 1956: 23–24). Lines 12–14 allude to conspirators who would make use of Tantric rituals, philtres, and magical artefacts—most notably a *śrīyantra*—to cause madness in other people. Referring to this inscription, Goudriaan (1978: 323) concludes:

There is no question here of an abstract use of these expressions but of real magical ceremonies is proved by a reference made by the king to certain methods used by the rebels such as designing or painting an image of him (*rūpināṅku*) and application of aśes (*bhasma*), wizards ... and spells (*mantra*).

Goudriaan (ibid.: 324) maintains that '[a]s with the act of *ākaraṣaṇa*, it is a matter of probability that persons of high status and wealth such as kings have often figured as the victims of rites of

of Kumbhayoni, whose anti-Bauddha activities on the Ratu Boko hillock are discussed by Sundberg (this volume).

81. Jakl (ibid.: 12) has also drawn attention to a passage of the *Bhōmāntaka* (82.3) mentioning the application of mantras in order to harm an enemy.

82. See Bade, this volume; Dalton 2011: 137; Sinclair 2014.

subjugation'.⁸³ A Buddhist instance of these practices is found in the *Vidyottamāntara*, a so-called Caryāntara or Kriyāntara now available only in Tibetan; sections 1–3 of this text describe a ritual for the subjugation (*vaśīkaraṇa*) of kings 'in the presence of Vajrapāṇi' (*vajrapāṇisya/vajrapāṇer agrataḥ*);⁸⁴ similarly, the *Susiddhikārasūtra* states that 'the *mantras* of the Vajra [Family] are for *ābhicāruka* (subjugation) [rites]' (Chinese trans. of AD 726, Giebel 2001: 130–31, 133). The *Vīṇāśikhatantra*, a Śaiva scripture of the Vāmasrotas mainly devoted to magic, describes rituals for the subjugation of kings and queens (pp. 174–77), and of the entire threefold world (*trailokya*, pp. 163–64, 270–74, see Eino 2009: 33). Describing one such ritual for rulers, this text declares that, at the end of a sacrifice making use of human flesh, the practitioner 'should imagine the victim as being out of his mind and benumbed, struck on his head by the Elephant-goad (*aṅkuśa*) and bound by the Māyic noose; even a king or queen he will subjugate within a week' (pp. 160–61). The *Vīṇāśikhatantra* figures (as *Vīṇāśikha*) in the AD 1052 Sdok Kak Thom Sanskrit-Old Khmer inscription hinting at Tantric rituals performed by the Brahmin Hiraṇyadāman for the 'liberation' of the Khmer domains from the subjugation of Javā,⁸⁵ by means of which King Jayavarman II founded the Khmer Empire in the early 9th century and became a Cakravartin (Goudriaan 1985: 24–26; Brown 2003; Sanderson 2003–4: 357, 2004: 235). Sanderson (2004: 238) also discusses the Sanskrit inscription K.111 of the reign of Jayavarman V (ca. 968–1000/1) that tells us that Kīrtipaṇḍita, a Buddhist master following the Yogatantras, 'had been adopted by the royal family as their Guru, [and] was frequently engaged by the king to perform apotropaic, restorative and aggressive Mantra rituals within the royal palace for the protection of his kingdom'—namely, 'rituals for the quelling of dangers, the restoration of health and the rest' (to Sanderson, 'the rest' presupposes *abhicāra*). As I have argued above,

both the *Pañcakāṇḍa* and the section closing the *Gaṇapatitattva* share a commonality of themes and mantric technology with scriptures—such as the *Netratantra*, the *Vīṇāśikhatantra*, and the Bhūtat-antras—devoted to the rituals of Tantric magic devised for the benefit of royal sponsors.

In view of the above facts, one may assume that the word *khanipas* inscribed on the lower part of the bubble where the *raka* title of Panaraban is also inscribed represents a personal name, perhaps that of the king himself, or of one of his associates—a general, minister, his royal chaplain, or a close family member, e.g. his queen.⁸⁶ I find it more plausible that Khanipas would be a victim of the subjugation spell together with Panaraban, but one may also speculate that Khanipas would be the individual who wanted to 'bind' Panaraban to himself, or influence him.

CONCLUSION

Two *ślokas* of the *Pañcakāṇḍa*, a Sanskrit Buddhist *stuti* from Bali, and the Sanskrit-Old Javanese *Gaṇapatitattva*, a Śaiva *tutur* text that has come down to us in many Balinese redactions to varying degrees dominated by the figure of Gaṇapati, attest the mantra JAḤ ṬAḤ KIḤ HŪM PHAṬ. This is a re-

83. A discussion of Sanskrit texts that describe rituals of subjugation targeting rulers and their ministers and subjects may be found in Goudriaan 1978: 322–26.

84. See Ito Gyokan (ed.) 2005: 264–65 (I thank Iain Sinclair for this reference, email dated 30 August 2014).

85. On the identification of this Javā with Yavadvīpa (i.e., Java), see Griffiths 2013.

86. The possibility that Khanipas might have been Panaraban's queen was already voiced by Sundberg (2003: 177). Degroot (2006: 66) reports a personal communication by Klokke (2004) casting doubt on Sundberg's identification of Panarabvan with King Panaraban, on the ground that 'the absence of any title is suspicious given the fact that Panaraban is a *rake* title, not a personal name'. This objection is not very compelling, for the epigraphical evidence has only yielded attestations of the *rake* title and consecration names of kings; similarly, in the allegorical passages of the *kakavin Rāmāyaṇa*, we find allusions to kings such as Rakai Pikatan (as *pikatan*, 24.115, 25.13 [*pikatan* = decoy bird]) and Rakai Kayuvaṇi (as *caṇḍana*, 'sandalwood', 21.94; *kyātīnaran arūm*, 'known as fragrant', and *taru kanakā*, 'sandalwood tree', 24.126 [*kayuvaṇi* = 'fragrant tree/wood', i.e. sandalwood]) that refer to these titles (without the honorific particle *rakai*) rather than the personal names, thereby implying that the former were the appellations under which these kings were popularly known at the time. Even if Klokke is right, then one may speculate that Khanipas is the personal name of Rakai Panaraban, and that as such both appellations were inscribed on the *yantra*.

configured version of the ṬAKI JAḤ HŪṢ mantra—a quintessentially Buddhist mantra attested in the context of the Trailokyavijaya cycle in a number of Vajrayāna texts in Sanskrit, Tibetan, and Chinese. The instance of the ṬAKI JAḤ HŪṢ mantra found in the *Pañcakāṇḍa* and *Gaṇapatitattva*—the latter being the only one thus far documented in a thoroughly Śaiva religious text—adds to the series of rare attestations of this sequence recovered from Central Javanese inscriptions, namely the Ratu Boko gold foil, two boundary-stones dating back to the second half of the 9th century (from a Śaiva context), an undated stone mentioning a *vihāra*, and a Buddhist lead-bronze inscription from Borobudur (prob. 9th or 10th century). All these documents bear some implications for our understanding of the purpose of the Ratu Boko inscribed gold foil, as well as of the religious and socio-political context in which it was produced.

Having argued that the attestation of the mantra in both the *Pañcakāṇḍa* and the *Gaṇapatitattva* occurs in a context of apotropaic, *siddhi*-oriented, and coercive magic characterizing Tantric literature of various sectarian persuasions across the mediaeval Indic world, I have concluded that the Ratu Boko artefact was most likely intended as a magical *yantra*. Given that, as noted by Sundberg, the mantra involves an element of anti-Śaiva polemic, I further elaborated on Jordaan and Colless's hypothesis that the mantra was meant to influence, i.e. 'spellbind', the late 8th-century Javanese King Panaraban, either for religious purposes (i.e., to convert him to Buddhism) or for aims of realpolitik. This picture fits well in the context of political and religious transition that Central Java seems to have witnessed during the 9th century, namely the shift from a (Śailendra-dominated) Buddhist paradigm to a new Śaiva course.

Building on the work of Sundberg and Griffiths, who have shown the association of the (various versions of the) ṬAKI JAḤ HŪṢ mantra with removal of obstacles and magical operations of *ākaraṣaṇa* and *vaśikaraṇa* in Indic Buddhist sources, I have explored the links between this mantra and the figure of the elephant-headed god Gaṇapati/Vināyaka, which had a place in both Śaiva and Buddhist pantheons as a remover of obstacles. Gaṇapati, as a demonic member of Maheśvara's entourage,

constitutes the victim par excellence of subjugation through the mantric elephant-goad (JAḤ) and snare (HŪṢ) of Vajrapāṇi, which the Bodhisattva used to tame Maheśvara in the Trailokyavijaya cycle.

The transmogrification of the ṬAKI JAḤ HŪṢ mantra in the *Gaṇapatitattva*, in a context of Tantric magic, suggests that the compiler of the text carried out an operation of 'textual bricolage' that involved the trans-sectarian appropriation of (co-functional) Buddhist mantric technology and its translation into Śaiva terms. This appropriation may have involved a direct borrowing from (a version of) the *Pañcakāṇḍa*, as suggested by the association between Gaṇapati/Vināyaka and Amṛtakuṇḍalin, a Buddhist apotropaic, outer-*maṇḍala* deity that might have been invoked through the epithet 'Sun' (*āditya*) in the *Pañcakāṇḍa*.

In the fluid context of Tantric magic, where borrowing commonly occurs, and many ritual (and sectarian) distinctions become blurred, the production of counter-narratives (and counter-mantras) may not necessarily entail an implied element of trans-sectarian polemic. However, given the climate of fierce religious competition for royal patronage across the Indic world (Java included) in the Mediaeval period, the possibility that 'as the tantric ritual technologies were widely adopted, the new ritual resemblances that resulted can only have heightened sectarian anxieties' (Dalton 2011: 36) should be kept open.

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